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THE

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VOLUME THE TENTH.

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THE

Saturday Magazine.

No. 291. JANUARY 14TH, 1837. PRICE ONE PENNY.

UNDER THE DIRECTION OF THE COMMITTEE OF GENERAL LITERATURE AND EDUCATION, APPOINTED BY THE SOCIETY FOR PROMOTING CHRISTIAN KNOWLEDGE.

GILBERT WHITE, OF SELBORNE.

VIEW OF SELBORNE.

THE view which appears in this number of the *Saturday Magazine*, is reduced from an old engraving which has lately fallen into our hands, inscribed, "North East View of Selborne, from the SHORT LYTHE." A small strip, apparently about an inch wide, has been torn off towards the right hand, leaving the engraving about sixteen inches and a half long, by ten and a half high. It is, however, the only general view of Selborne, which we remember to have ever seen: and we hope that we shall gratify our readers, especially those who have been instructed and delighted like ourselves, by the late Rev. Gilbert White's history of his native village, by presenting them with this view, accompanied by a brief memoir of the author, and of the principal objects introduced into the view.

The following few biographical records of the author were prefixed to his "Works in Natural History," comprising amongst others, *The Natural History of Selborne*, published by his relative, Mr. J. White, bookseller in Fleet Street, 1802, whose initials, J. W., annexed to the notice, appear to indicate him as the author.

GILBERT WHITE, was the eldest son of John White, of SELBORNE, Esq., and of Ann, the daughter of Thomas Holt, rector of Streatham, in Surry. He was born at Selborne on July 18, 1720; and received his school education at Basingstoke, under the Rev. Thomas Warton, vicar of that place, and father of those two distinguished literary characters, Dr. Joseph Warton, master of Winchester School, and Mr. Thomas Warton, poetry-professor at Oxford. He was admitted at Oriel College, Oxford, in December, 1739, and took his degree of bachelor of arts in June, 1743. In March, 1744, he was elected fellow of his college. He became master of arts in October, 1746, and was admitted one of the senior proctors of the University in April, 1752. Being of an unambitious temper, and strongly attached to the charms of rural scenery, he early fixed his residence in his native village, where he spent the greater part of his life in literary occupations, and especially in the study of nature. This he followed with patient assiduity, and a mind ever open to the lessons of piety and benevolence, which such a study is so well calculated to afford. Though several occasions offered of settling upon a college living, he could never persuade himself to quit the beloved spot, which was, indeed, a peculiarly happy situation for an observer. He was much esteemed by a select society of intelligent and worthy friends, to whom he paid occasional visits. Thus his days passed, tranquil and serene, with scarcely any other vicissitudes than those of the seasons, till they closed at a mature age, on June 26, 1793.

The Natural History and Antiquities of Selborne, the result of his observations as above described, was published by him in 1788, in the form of letters addressed to his brother-naturalists, Thomas Pennant, Esq., and the Honourable Daines Barrington, with the former of whom he corresponded from August 4, 1767, to November 30, 1780; and with the latter, from June 30, 1769, to June 25, 1787. His *Naturalist's Calendar*, his *Observations on Various Parts of Nature*, and his *Summary of the Weather*, were made

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during the same period, commencing with 1768, and extending to 1793, the year of his decease. The accuracy and extent of his observations, their variety and detail, the liveliness of their manner, and the pleasant, unaffected style in which they are expressed, have deservedly contributed to make his *Natural History of Selborne* one of the most popular books in our language: so that within the last five years, at least four new editions of it have been put out by different editors, entirely independent of each other. Few books, at the same time, let the reader so completely into the disposition, sentiments, habits, and character of the author, who may be there traced, step by step, wandering through the hanging woods, over the chalky downs, along the deep hollow lanes, and beside the living rills, of his own beautiful and delightful Selborne: and finding in "each thing met," fresh occasion for curious remark and rational enjoyment.

We wish that the accompanying wood-cut gave a more satisfactory view of the beauty of the scenery, which will well repay the admirer of nature the trouble of a pilgrimage. In order to which, we would apprize our readers in the language of Mr. White, that,—

> The parish of Selborne lies in the extreme eastern corner of the county of Hampshire, bordering on the county of Sussex, and not far from the county of Surry; is about fifty miles south-west of London, in latitude 51, and near midway between the towns of Alton and Petersfield. . . . . The high part to the south-west consists of a vast hill of chalk, rising 300 feet above the village; and is divided into a sheep-down, the high wood, and a long hanging wood, called *The Hanger*. The covert of this eminence is altogether beech, the most lovely of all forest trees, whether we consider its smooth rind or bark, its glossy foliage, or graceful pendulous boughs. The down, or sheep-walk, is a pleasing, park-like spot, of about one mile, by half that space, jutting out on the verge of the hill country, where it begins to break down into the plains, and commanding a very engaging view, being an assemblage of hill, dale, woodlands, heath, and water. The prospect is bounded on the south-east and east, by the vast range of mountains called the Sussex-downs, by Guildown, near Guildford, and by the downs round Dorking and Ryegate in Surry, to the north-east; which, altogether, with the country beyond Alton and Farnham, form a noble and extensive outline. At the foot of this hill, one stage or step from the uplands, lies the village, which consists of one single straggling street, three-quarters of a mile in length, in a sheltered vale, and running parallel with the Hanger. At each end of the village, which runs from south-east and north-west, arises a small rivulet: that at the north-west end frequently fails, but the other is a fine perennial spring, little influenced by drought or wet seasons, called Well-head. This breaks out of some high grounds, joining to Nore-Hill, a noble chalk promontory.

From this description may be formed a general idea of the scenery of Selborne. We would now beg the reader to look at the view, whilst we endeavour to particularise the objects.

Look towards the end of the piece, on your left hand, and you may perceive a passage, going up the hill, through the wood, crossed by a succession of lines advancing right and left alternately. This appears to be indicated in a little poem by Mr. White, entitled, *Selborne Hanger, a Winter Piece;* where he says,—

> When spouting rains descend in torrent tides,
> See the torn zigzag weep its channel'd sides.

Look a little more to your right, near the top of the wooded hill, and you may perceive a small hut, with its gable towards you, and a round-headed door; and in front of it, what, if more distinctly traced, would appear to be a terrace: this hut is "a grotesque building, contrived by a young gentleman, who used on occasion to appear in the character of a hermit," and as such represented in the frontispiece to the edition of 1802, and alluded to in the annexed poem. Still further to your right, about the centre of the view, and near midway up the Hanger, you may perceive, though not very conspicuous, another small building, a kind of arbour on the side of the hill, also alluded to in the annexed poem. Passing still to your right towards the church, the tall, white object in its neighbourhood,—a pole with a vane upon it,—seems to point out "a square piece of ground, in the centre of the village, surrounded by houses, and vulgarly called *the Plestor;* in the midst of which spot stood, in old times, a vast oak, with a short, squat body, and huge, horizontal arms, extending about to the extremity of the area," the delight and resort of old and young, till it was overturned by an amazing tempest in 1703. The name *Plestor* is a corruption of the Saxon word *Plegstow*, or *Pleystow*, meaning a play-place.

Of the remaining objects, the most conspicuous is the church, which consists of three aisles with a transept, making it almost as broad as it is long. It is a plain and unadorned building, supposed by Mr. White to be of the beginning of Henry the Seventh's reign, but rebuilt upon the remnants of an older building; and with windows of that simple sort, called lancet, some single, some double, and some in triplets, as partly represented in our view. The verses quoted below would lead us to expect a "pointed spire" to this edifice: but the engraving represents only a low, flat, embattled tower, and rising from it a long, iron rod, surmounted by a weather-cock, which, however, being somewhat indistinct in the engraving, has been omitted in our wood-cut.

Close by the church, at the west end, stands the vicarage house,—an old, but roomy and convenient building. It faces agreeably to the morning sun, and is divided from the village by a neat and cheerful court. Behind the house is a garden, of an irregular shape, but well laid out; whose terrace, Mr. White adds, "commands so romantic and picturesque a prospect, that the first master in landscape might contemplate it with pleasure, and deem it an object well worthy of his pencil."

The reader is now sufficiently acquainted with the different features of Selborne, to understand the accompanying view: its Hanger and village, its rivulets, its beeches, its forest roads, its zigzag path, its hermitage and hill-side arbour, its rustic play-place, its church and parsonage house; not to mention the other appurtenances of meadows, hop-grounds, orchards, corn-fields, gardens, lanes, hedge-rows, and scattered trees and cottages, which it partakes in common with other rural scenes. The same objects for the most part, are introduced by the historian of his native village, into a pleasing poem, which we subjoin as a companion to our view, in mutual illustration of each other, abridging it by the omission of some lines here and there, which are not to our present purpose. At the same time it should be observed, with reference to two allusions in the poem which do not enter into our view, that in the neighbourhood of Selborne are the ruins of a priory founded by Peter de Rupibus, Bishop of Winchester, in the thirteenth century, in a vale sequestered from the world, amidst woods and meadows, and watered by a stream or brook running down it, which vale is now called "the long Lithe or Lythe," a name of ancient date, and uncertain etymology and signification, but retained also in the name of the spot from which our view was taken, and which is called by contradistinction, "the short Lythe;" and that at

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the distance of about two miles east of the church are the remains of a preceptory of the Knights Templars, at least a farm dependent on a preceptory of that order; the dwelling-house being still called "Temple," and placed in a very particular situation upon the immediate verge of a steep, abrupt hill.

THE INVITATION TO SELBORNE.

See, Selborne spreads her boldest beauties round
The varied valley, and the mountain-ground,
Wildly majestic! What is all the pride
Of flats, with loads of ornament supplied?
Unpleasing, tasteless, impotent expense,
Compared with Nature's rude magnificence.
Oft on some evening, sunny, soft, and still,
The Muse shall lead thee to the beech-grown hill,
To spend in tea the cool, refreshing hour,
Where nods in air the pensile, nest-like bower;
Or where the hermit hangs the straw-clad cell,
Emerging gently from the leafy dell,
By Fancy planned; as once the inventive maid
Met the hoar sage amid the secret shade.
Romantic spot! from whence in prospect lies
Whate'er of landscape charms our feasting eyes:
The pointed spire, the hall, the pasture-plain,
The russet fallow, or the golden grain,
The breezy lake that sheds a gleaming light,
Till all the fading picture fail the sight.
Hark! while below the village bells ring round,
Echo, sweet nymph, returns the softened sound;
But, if gusts rise, the rushing forests roar,
Like the tide tumbling on the pebbly shore.
Adown the vale, in lone, sequestered nook,
Where skirting woods imbrown the dimpling brook,
The ruined convent lies! Here wont to dwell
The lazy canon 'midst his cloistered cell,
While Papal darkness brooded o'er the land,
Ere Reformation made her glorious stand:
Still oft at eve belated shepherd swains
See the cowled spectre skim the folded plains.
To the high Temple would my stranger go,
The mountain-brow commands the woods below.
In Jewry first this order found a name,
When madding Croisades set the world in flame;
When western climes, urged on by pope and priest,
Poured forth their millions o'er the deluged east:
Luxurious knights, ill suited to defy
To mortal fight, Turcestan chivalry.
Nor be the parsonage by the Muse forgot!
The partial bard admires his native spot;
Smit with its beauties, loved, as yet a child,
Unconscious why, its capes, grotesque and wild.
High on a mound the exalted gardens stand,
Beneath, deep valleys scooped by nature's hand.
Now climb the steep, drop now your eye below,
Where round the blooming village orchards grow;
There, like a picture, lies my lowly seat,
A rural, sheltered, unobserved retreat.
Me far above the rest Selbornian scenes,
The pendent forests, and the mountain greens,
Strike with delight: there spreads the distant view,
That gradual fades till sunk in misty blue:
Here Nature hangs her slopy woods to sight,
Rills purl between, and dart a quivering light.

P.S.—The writer of the foregoing article had not access to the original edition of White's *Selborne*, and was not aware that the engraving, from which our wood-cut was taken, and which he has endeavoured to illustrate by reference to Mr. White's works, was, in fact, prefixed to the quarto edition of 1789. It has been just brought to his knowledge by his accidentally meeting with Sir William Jardine's edition, to which the view, reduced by Ewbank from Grimm's contemporary sketch, forms the frontispiece. Our wood-cut, we hope, will not be depreciated on a comparison.

The Arabians have several proverbial sayings concerning pretended false friendships. Some are taken from a pool which is filled by sudden hasty showers, and is extremely grateful to a thirsty traveller, but so deceitful, that when he returns he finds it quite exhausted. In the same manner they compare a treacherous friend to a torrent, or land-flood, which is soon raised, and as soon disappears.—Chappelow.

SPIDERS. I.

Every one who examines the web of a common Spider, whether it is formed of concentric circles, or supported by diverging rays, or whether it imitates any finely-woven substance, will be convinced, that she must be furnished with a peculiar set of organs to effect these purposes; that she must have something like a *hand* to work with. Amongst the small things that are wise upon earth, Solomon mentions the Spider, and the way by which he tells us she shows her wisdom, is by her prehensory powers,—*she takes hold with her hands.* And truly what Arachne does with her hands and her spinning organs, is very wonderful.

Spiders are gifted with the faculty of walking against gravity, even upon glass, and in a prone position. According to the observations of Mr. Blackwall, this is not effected by producing atmospheric pressure by the adhesion of suckers, but by a brush formed of "slender bristles, fringed on each side with exceeding fine hairs, gradually diminishing in length as they approach its extremity, where they occur in such profusion as to form a thick brush on its inferior surface." These brushes he first discovered on a living specimen of the *bird-spider*, and the same structure, as far as his researches were carried, he found in those Spiders which can walk against gravity and up glass. This is one of the modes by which they take hold with their hands, and thus they ascend walls, and set their snares in the palace as well as the cottage. Whoever examines the underside of the last joint or digit of the foot of this animal, with a common pocket-lens, will see that it is clothed with a very thick brush, the hairs of which, under a more powerful magnifier, appear somewhat hooked at the apex: in some species this brush is divided longitudinally, so as to form two.

But the organs that are more particularly connected with the weaving and structure of the snares of the Spiders, are most worthy of attention. Setting aside the hunters, and others that weave no snares to entrap their prey, I shall consider those I intend to notice, under the usual names of *weavers*, and retiaries.

Before Mr. Blackwall turned his attention to the proceedings of these ingenious and industrious animals, it had not been ascertained, in what respect their modes of spinning their webs, and the organs by which they formed their respective manufactures differed. But Mr. Blackwall, whose observations were principally made upon one of the weavers which frequents the holes and cavities of walls, and similar places, observes that it spins a kind of web of different kinds of silk, the surface of which has a flocky appearance, from the web being as it were ravelled.

This web, he observes, is produced by a double series of spines, opposed to each other, and planted on a prominent ridge of the upper-side of the metatarsal joint, or that usually regarded as the first joint, of the foot of the posterior legs on the side next the abdomen. These spines are employed by the animal as a carding apparatus, the low series combing, as it were, or extracting the ravelled web from the spinneret, and the upper series, by the insertion of its spines between those of the other, disengaging the web from them. By this curious operation, which it is not easy to describe clearly, the adhesive part of the snare is formed; thus large flies are easily caught and detained, which the animal, emerging from its concealment, soon despatches and devours.

The organs by which the *retiary* Spiders form their

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curious geometric snares have generally been described as three claws, the two uppermost armed with parallel teeth like a comb, and the lower one simple and often depressed; but Mr. Blackwall found, in a species related to the common garden spider, eight claws, seven of which had their lower side toothed. The object of this complex apparatus of claws, simple and pectinated, is to enable these animals to take hold of any thread; to guide it; to pull it; to draw it out; to ascertain the nature of anything insnared, whether it be animate or inanimate; and to suspend itself. In fact, the Creator has made their claws not only hands but eyes to these animals.

Besides these organs, scattered moveable spines, or spurs, are observable upon the legs, especially the *three* last joints, which I consider as forming the foot, but sometimes also upon the thighs of spiders, which, as they can be elevated and depressed at the will of the animal, probably are used as a kind of finger, when occasions require it.

In the multiform apparatus of these ingenious animals, as far as we understand its use, we see how they are fitted for their office, by contributing to deliver mankind from a plague of flies, which would otherwise annoy us beyond toleration, and corrupt our land.

[KIRBY'S *Bridgewater Treatise.*]

NOTES ON FOREST TREES. No. V.

THE ELM.

THE British Elms are of two sorts, the fine-leaved Elm of England (*Ulmus campestris*), and the Wych Elm of Scotland (*Ulmus montana*). The Elm, when suffered to grow in its natural form, is a lofty and graceful tree; it is much planted in the neighbourhood of some of our palaces, at Hampton, Bushy Park, Windsor, &c., formed into avenues, and yielding a most agreeable shade; but as it is treated in many of the hedge-rows near London, it has a naked and awkward appearance. The timber of both the British Elms is used for many purposes, in which the wood is exposed to the alternation of moisture and drought; it was almost the only wood used for the pipes of the water-companies, previous to the introduction of iron pipes. It is also consumed in great quantities in common turnery, but although tolerably close grained, and working with considerable freedom; it is very liable to warp.

Mr. Gilpin, speaking of the appearance of the Elm, says,—

The Oak and the Ash have each a distinct character. The massy form of the one dividing into abrupt, twisting, irregular limbs, yet compact in its foliage, and the easy sweep of the other, the simplicity of its branches, and the looseness of its hanging leaves, characterize both these trees with so much precision, that, at any distance at which the eye can distinguish the form, it may also distinguish the difference. The Elm has not so distinct a character. It partakes so much of the oak, that when it is rough and old, it may easily, at a little distance, be mistaken for one; though the oak, I mean such an oak as is strongly marked with its peculiar character, can never be mistaken for the Elm. This defect, however, appears chiefly in the skeleton of the Elm. In full foliage its character is better marked. No tree is better adapted to receive grand masses of light. In this respect it is superior both to the oak and the ash.

The Elm is the first tree that salutes the early Spring with its light and cheerful green, a tint which contrasts agreeably with the oak, whose early leaf has generally more of the olive cast. We see them sometimes in fine harmony together, about the end of April and the beginning of May.

The great variety of form assumed by the leaf of the Elm induced some authors to suppose that the species were tolerably numerous, but the intermediate distinctions between any two of the most strongly-marked varieties were so many, that it was impossible to draw a line of separation.

In most parts of the continent the Elm is planted as with us in long avenues in the approaches to the mansions of the nobility and others, but in Italy it is applied to another use; it is the tree of whose services they usually avail themselves for the purpose of training their grape-vines. The height of the stem of the elms intended for this purpose is limited to twelve or fifteen feet, and only as many branches are left as are necessary for the intended purpose. This employment of the Elm is extremely ancient. Virgil often refers to it.

The mode of propagation resorted to in the case of the English Elm is usually by means of suckers from the parent tree. The best description of suckers are those which are produced by trees that have been cut close to the ground two years previously; these are to be deprived of all the new shoots that have already sprung, and the following Summer they will produce a number of clean young shoots; plant these at about eight feet asunder in the *quincunx* order, thus, ⁘ which will fill the ground more equally than by planting them in squares. The Elm is sometimes also propagated by layers of the young shoots produced by the old stumps.

The Wych Elm is usually propagated by seed, which it yields in considerable abundance. These seeds are generally ripe from the beginning to the middle of June, according to the season. They must be attentively looked after as they approach to maturity, for when they are fully ripe, a blast of wind, or heavy rain, will drive them all off the trees in a day's time, and as the seeds are very small, it will be difficult afterwards to collect any quantity. The best plan is, when they are nearly ripe, to spread mats on the ground and cause the tree to be gently shaken.

The seeds, when collected, are to be carefully dried

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in the open air, not in the sun, and being afterwards mixed with dry sand, preserved from moisture until the Spring. About the beginning or middle of February, the seed is to be sown in beds, about three feet and a half wide, of loose rich garden earth; they are to be spread in the same manner as onions or other garden herbs. In most cases they will be fit to transplant by the next Spring.

At Mongewell, Oxfordshire, there is a beautiful walk planted with Elms all of a great size, one measuring fourteen feet in girth at three feet from the ground; it is seventy-nine feet in height, and sixty-five in the extent of its boughs. Dr. Van Mildert, Bishop of Durham, in his ninetieth year, erected an urn in the midst of their shade, to the memory of two of his friends, on which the following lines were inscribed:

To the Memory
of my
Two highly valued friends,
Thomas Tyrwhitt, Esq.,
and
The Rev. C. M. Cracherode, M.A.

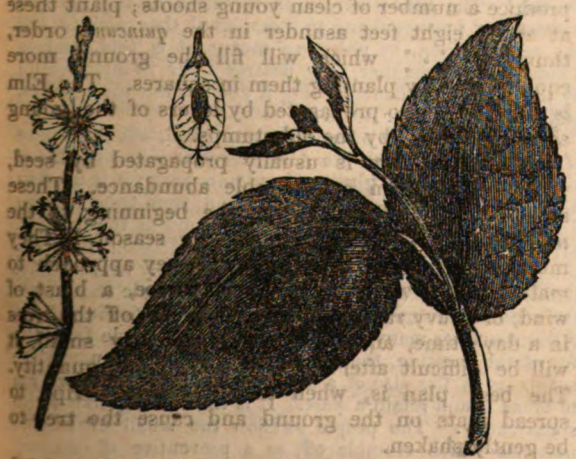
In this once-favoured walk, beneath these elms,
Where thicken'd foliage, to the solar ray
Impervious, sheds a venerable gloom.
Oft in instructive converse we beguiled
The fervid time, which each returning year
To friendship's call devoted. Such things *were:*
But *are*, alas! no more.

The Tutbury Wych Elm, at the height of five feet from the ground, measures sixteen feet nine inches in circumference; the trunk is twelve feet long, and the branches extend from forty to fifty feet in all directions.

At Pollock, in Renfrewshire, there are some very large Wych Elms; the largest is eighty-eight feet in height.

The Chipstead Elm is an English Elm, and stands on a rising ground in the pleasure-grounds of Chipstead Place, Kent; it is sixty feet in height, twenty feet in circumference at the root, and fifteen feet eight inches, at three and a half feet from the ground, and contains 268 feet of timber, although it has lost some of its most important branches. A hollow Wych Elm, by Stratton Church, measures twenty-nine feet six inches at four feet above the ground.

The largest Elm of Scotch growth is, or rather was, for it is now nearly destroyed, in the parish of Roxburghe, in Teviotdale; when measured in 1796 it was thirty feet in girth. It is called the *trysting* tree, from having been the place of rendezvous in 1547 of the lairds of Cessford and Fernyhirst, and other Scotch gentry, when they met the protector Somerset to swear allegiance to the king of England.



LEAF, SEED POD, AND BLOSSOM OF THE ELM TREE.

ICE PALACE AT MOSCOW.

This whimsical structure was one of the wonders of the last century. It was a waste of ingenuity, but served as an illustration of the power of cold, and the density and novel application of ice. Seven years previous to the erection of this palace, an ice-castle and garrison had been built upon the river Neva, in Russia; but the ice broke under the weight, and that of the soldiers who guarded them. A better foundation was therefore selected for the ice-palace, on the bank of the river, and the structure, curious as it was, was completed, and exhibited to the Russian populace at the marriage of Prince Gallitzin.

The material of the palace consisted of blocks of ice cut out of the Winter covering of the Neva, which were from two to three feet in thickness. Being properly formed and adjusted to each other, water was poured between them, which soon froze, and acted as cement; so that the whole edifice, with its furniture, may be said to have been one mass of ice. Its length was 56 feet; its breadth 17½ feet; and its height 21 feet. It was constructed according to the strictest rules of art, and was adorned with a portico, columns, and statues. It consisted of a single story; the front was provided with a door and fourteen windows, the frames and panes of the latter being all formed of ice. The sides of the doors and windows were painted to imitate green marble. On each side of the principal door was a dolphin, from the mouth of which, by means of burning naphtha, volumes of flame were emitted at night. Next to the dolphins were two mortars, from which many bombs were thrown, a quarter of a pound of powder being used for each charge. On each side of the mortar stood three cannons, equal to three-pounders, mounted upon carriages, and with wheels, which were often used. In the presence of a number of persons attached to the Russian court, a bullet was driven through a board two inches thick, at the distance of sixty paces, by one of these cannons; a quarter of a pound being used for the charge.

The palace had no ceiling: its interior consisted of a lobby and two large apartments, which were well furnished and elegantly painted, though merely formed of ice. Tables, chairs, statues, looking-glasses, candlesticks, watches, and other ornaments, besides tea-dishes, tumblers, wine-glasses, and even plates with provisions, were seen in one apartment, also formed of ice, and painted their natural colours: while in the other apartment was a state-bedstead with curtains, bed, pillows, and bed-clothes, two pairs of slippers and two night-caps, of the same cold material.

Behind the cannons, the mortars, and the dolphins, stretched a low balustrade. On each side of the building was a small entrance, with pots of flowers and orange-trees, partly formed of ice and partly natural, on which birds sat. Beyond these were two icy pyramids. On the right of one of them stood an elephant which was hollow, and so contrived as to throw out flaming naphtha, whilst a person within imitated the cries of the animal. On the left of the other pyramid was seen the never-failing appurtenance to all princely dwellings in Russia, a *banga*, or bath, (apparently formed of balks,) which is said to have been sometimes heated, and even appropriated to use.

The appearance of the ice-palace, when illuminated, is said to have been remarkably splendid. Amusing transparencies were usually suspended in the windows, and the emission of flames by the dolphins and the elephant, tended to excite greater surprise, by flashing on the crystalline mass. Crowds of visiters were continually seen around this fantastical construction,

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which remained entire from the beginning of January nearly till the middle of March. At the end of the latter month, however, the fairy fabric began to thaw, and soon afterwards it was broken into pieces, and conveyed to the Imperial ice-cellar.

AUSTRALIAN GRAMMAR. III.

THE following account of the strange fancies which are even now prevalent among the aboriginal Australians, is derived from the curious work which we have before noticed in the *Saturday Magazine*. The painful catalogue will serve to show how greatly the abject beings in that remote region require the exertions of Christians in their behalf; presenting, as it does, a lamentable spectacle of the weakness and wretchedness of human nature, when unblessed with a knowledge of the only true God, and of His reasonable service.

Ko-in, Tip-pa-kál, Pór-ráng,—Names of an imaginary male being, in appearance like a black; he is supposed to reside in thick brushes or jungles, and appears occasionally by day, but mostly at night. In general he precedes the coming of the natives from distant parts, when they assemble to celebrate certain mysteries, such as knocking out the tooth in a mystic ring, or performing some dance. He appears painted with pipe-clay, and carries a fire-stick in his hand; but, generally, it is the doctors (a kind of magicians,) who alone perceive him, and to whom he says, "Fear not, come and talk." At other times he comes when the blacks are asleep, and takes them up as an eagle his prey, and carries them away. The shouts of the surrounding party often occasion him to drop his burden; otherwise he conveys them to his fire-place in the bush, where, close to the fire, he deposits his load. The person carried tries to cry out but cannot, feeling almost choked; at daylight Ko-in disappears, and the black finds himself conveyed safely to his own fire-side!

Tip-pa-kal-lé-un, Mail-kun, Bim-póin,—Names of the wife of Koin. She is a much more terrific being than her husband, whom the blacks do not so much dread, because *he* does not kill them; but this female not only carries off the natives in a large bag-net beneath the earth, but spears the children through the temple, and no one ever sees again those whom she obtains!

Ko-yo-ró-wén,—The name of another imaginary being, whose trill in the bush frequently alarms the blacks in the night. When he overtakes a native, he commands him to exchange cudgels, giving his own, which is extremely large, and desiring the black to take a first blow at his head, which he holds down for that purpose; after which he smites and kills the person with one blow, skewers him with the cudgel, carries him off, roasts, and then eats him!

Kur-ri-wilbán,—The name of his wife; she has a long horn on each shoulder, growing upward, with which she pierces the Aborigines, and then shakes herself until they are impaled on her shoulders, when she carries them to the deep valley, roasts and eats her victims. *Ya-ho,* has by some means been given to the blacks as a name for this being.

Put-ti-kán,—Another imaginary being, like a horse, having a large mane, and a tail, sharp like a cutlass. Whenever he meets the blacks, they go towards him, and draw up their lips, to show that *the tooth is knocked out,* when he will not injure them; but should the tooth be left in, he runs after, kills, and eats them. He does not walk, but bounds like a kangaroo, the noise of which on the ground is as the report of a gun, calling out as he advances, *Pir-ro-lóng, Pir-ro-lóng!*

Pór-ro-bung,—The name of a mystic ring, in which they dance and fall down at certain periods; from *Pór,* to drop down.

Yu-lung,—The name of the ring in which the tooth is knocked out. The trees are marked near the ring with rude representations of locusts, serpents, &c., chopped on the bark with an axe. They dance for several days, every morning and evening, continuing the whole of the night.

Ko-pur-ra-ba,—The name of the place from which the blacks obtain the *Ko-pur-ra,* a yellowish earth, which they wet, mould up into balls, and then burn in a strong fire, when it changes into a brilliant red, something like red ochre, with which the men and women paint themselves, mixing it with the kidney-fat of the kangaroo: it is always used at their dances.

Mul-lung-bu-la,—The name of two upright rocks about nine feet high, springing upon the side of a bluff head on the margin of the lake. The blacks affirm from tradition, that they are two women who were transformed into rocks, in consequence of their being beaten to death by a black man. Beneath the mountain on which the two pillars stand, a seam of common coal is seen many feet thick, from which *Reid* obtained a cargo of coals, when he mistook the entrance of this lake for Newcastle: a wharf, the remains of his building, still exists at this place, called from thence *Reid's Mistake.*

Mún-nu-kán,—The name of a point, under which is a seam of canal-coal; beneath, a thick seam of superior common coal joins it, and both jut into the sea between three and four fathoms of water. The Government mineral-surveyor found on examination, that the two veins were nearly nine feet in thickness, and the coal of excellent quality.

Wau-wa-rán,—The name of a hole of fresh water in the vicinity of Lake Macquarrie, between it and the mountains westerly; said by the blacks to be bottomless and inhabited by a monster of a fish, much larger than a shark, called *Wau-wai.* It frequents the contiguous swamp, and kills the Aborigines! There is another resort for these fish near an island in Lake Macquarrie, named *Bo-ro-yi-róng;* from the cliffs of which, if stones be thrown down into the sea beneath, the tea-tree bark floats up, and then the monster is seen gradually rising from the deep; should any natives be at hand, he overturns the canoe, swallows alive the crew, and then swallows the canoe whole, after which he descends to his resort in the depths below!

Yi-rán-ná-lai,—The name of a place near Newcastle, on the sea-beach, beneath a high cliff, where, it is said, if any persons speak, the stones fall down from the high arched rocks above. The crumbling state of it is such as to render it extremely probable, that the concussion of air from the voice causes this effect; "which once occurred to myself," says Mr. Threlkeld, "in company with some blacks."

Kur-rur-kur-rán,—The name of a place, in which there is almost a forest of petrifactions of wood, of various sizes, extremely well defined; situated in a bay at the N. W. extremity of Lake Macquarrie. The tradition of the Aborigines is, that formerly it was one large rock which fell from the heavens and killed a number of blacks, who were assembled where it descended; this being, by command of an immense Guana, which came down from heaven for that purpose, in consequence of his anger at their having killed some vermin by roasting them in the fire. Those who had killed the vermin by cracking, were previously speared to death by him with a long reed from Heaven! At that remote period, the moon was supposed to be a man named *Pón-to-bung:* hence the moon is called *he* to the present day; and the sun being formerly a woman, retains the feminine pronoun, *she.*

Mur-ro-kun,—The name of a mysterious bone, which is obtained by the *Ka-ra-kul,* a doctor, or conjuror; three of whom sleep on the grave of a recently-interred corpse, where in the night, during their sleep, the dead person inserts a mysterious bone into each thigh of the three doctors, who feel the puncture not more severe than that of the sting of an ant! The bones remain in the flesh of the doctors, without any inconvenience to them, until they wish to kill any person, when, by unknown means, it is said, and in a supernatural manner they destroy their ill-fated victim by the mysterious bone, causing it to enter into their bodies, and so occasion their death!!

Múr-ra-mai,—The name of a round ball, about the size of a cricket-ball, which the Aborigines carry in a small net suspended from their girdles of opossum yarn; it is used as a talisman against sickness, and is sent from tribe to tribe for hundreds of miles on the sea-coast, and in the interior. Mr. T. says, "One is now here from Moreton Bay, the interior of which, a black showed me privately in my study, betraying considerable anxiety lest any female should see the contents, women being interdicted from viewing them. After unrolling many yards of woollen cord, made from the fur of the opossum, the contents proved to be a quartz-like substance of the size of a pigeon's egg! He allowed me to break it and retain a part. It is transparent like white sugar-candy. The people swallow the small crystalline particles which crumble off, as a preventive of sickness. It scratches glass, and does not effervesce with acids.

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From another specimen, the stone appears to be agate of a milky hue, semipellucid, and strikes fire. The vein from which it appears broken off, is one inch and a quarter thick. A third specimen contained a portion of cornelian partially crystallized, a fragment of chalcedony, and a fragment of a crystal of white quartz."

Nauwai,—A canoe; *Pupa*, Bark, also a canoe, *Kuttal*, another species, also a canoe. The canoes are made of one sheet of bark taken whole from the tree and softened with fire, when they are tied up in a folded point at each end; a quantity of earth forms a hearth, on which they roast their bait and fish, when out fishing.

Ngór-ro, *Pum-me-ri*, *Yo-nei*,—Species of grass-tree; the stems of which form their spears, cemented together at the ends by the resinous substance which exudes from the root, until they become from eight to twelve feet long. A hard wood forms the last joint, in which is cemented a splinter of pointed bone, forming a barb. It is a deadly weapon, thrown by a lever nearly four feet long, held in the hand with the poised spear.

Nung-ngún,—A song. There are poets among them who compose songs, which are sung and danced to by their own tribe in the first place; after this other tribes learn the song and dance, which itinerate from tribe to tribe throughout the country, until from change of dialect, the very words are not understood correctly by distant blacks.

Pun-ti-mai,—A messenger, an ambassador. These are generally decorated with the down of the swan or hawk on their heads when on an embassy. They arrange the time, place, and manner of engagement in battle; or when punishing a supposed offender or real aggressor. They bring intelligence of the movements of hostile tribes, or the last new song and dance. When they travel at night, a fire-stick is always carried by them as a protection against "the powers of darkness;" or evil spirits, of which these savages are in continual dread.

Tur-rur-ma,—An instrument of war, called by Europeans Boomering, of a half-moon shape, which when thrown into the air, revolves on its own centre, and returns, forming a circle in its orbit from and to the thrower; to effect which it is thrown against the wind; but, in war, it is thrown against the ground, which it strikes in its revolution, and rebounds apparently with double violence, and hits at random some distant object, wounding severely with its sharpened extremities.

Tir-ril,—The tick a venomous insect in this country, which destroys young dogs, pigs, lambs, cats, &c., but is not fatal to man. It is exactly similar in size and shape to the English tick, but its effects are soon discovered by the animal which is attacked becoming paralyzed in its hind quarters: sickness comes on, and death generally follows in two or three days after the paralysis has taken place. In the three last cases which occurred to some lambs, two table-spoonsful of common salt were administered with a successful result.

Tem-bi-ri-be-en,—The death-adder. The usual remedy with the Aborigines for the bite is suction; but a case occurred not long since, in which a young girl was bitten by the venomous adder; her father sucked the wound, and both died immediately.

As one step, under Providence, of substituting "pure and undefiled Religion" for these manifold delusions, (the fruits of human folly and corruption,) that of presenting to the ignorant Australian islanders *a* GRAMMAR, *and a portion of the* GOSPEL *in their own tongue*, will, it is hoped, be most beneficial. It is almost impossible to gain any effectual hold on weak and darkened minds, unless we can communicate with them on terms of ease and confidence. To do this, nothing is more likely to contribute than to become acquainted with the language in which they were born, and the peculiar errors with which their minds are beset: for thus, when managed by prudent hands, the weapons of Christian truth may become "mighty through God, to the pulling down of strong-holds, casting down imaginations, and every high thing that exalteth itself against the knowledge of God, and bringing into captivity every thought to the obedience of Christ."

CROWNS AND CORONETS.

ALL nations, even in the early stages of civilization, have attached great importance to outward marks of dignity, for the purpose of distinguishing the most worthy of the community from his fellow-countrymen. The most ancient of these emblems of honour were wreaths of flowers, or leaves, worn as a kind of chaplet round the head. With these simple ornaments, the head of the priest, the conqueror, or the bride at her nuptials, was decorated. The principal materials employed for this purpose were the leaves of ivy, of laurel, or if the occasion was the celebration of the festival of some heathen deity, such flowers as were more peculiarly dedicated to its service, as, for instance, fig. 3, of grapes and vine-leaves, worn in honour of Bacchus, the heathen god of wine. Animals that were slaughtered for sacrifice were also decorated with wreaths and garlands. By degrees imitations in metal were substituted for natural wreaths; and thus at length, the tiara, the coronet, and the crown, were invented.

Among the Greeks and Romans, the different kinds of coronets given to conquerors and others, were reduced to a regular system. Thus there was the *Corona agonothetarum*, formed of laurel-leaves, given to the victor in athletic exercises; the *Corona aurea*, the golden crown, (fig. 5,) the reward of very great bravery; the *Corona castrensis* for the warrior who first entered the enemy's camp; the *Corona muralis* for him who first scaled the walls of a fortress; with many others, among which none was considered more honourable than the *Corona civica*, the civic crown, (fig. 4). Among the Romans, this was the highest military reward, and was bestowed upon the man who had saved the life of a citizen; it bore the inscription, *Ob civem servatum*, that is, *on account of a citizen preserved:* it was made of oak-leaves. He whose life had been saved, presented it, at the command of his leader, to his preserver, whom he was thenceforward bound to honour as a father. Other marks of honour were also bestowed on its possessor. At the theatre, he wore the crown, and was assigned a seat next to the senators: at his entrance the whole audience rose up to testify their respect, &c

Another crown, or chaplet, the *Corona obsidialis*, (fig. 2,) was presented to him who first brought relief to a besieged city: it was formed of some plant that bore seed fit for human food; as, for instance, corn, millet, &c.; that made of wheat (fig. 1,) was worn on the occasion of a harvest-home.

The kingly crown was at first merely a golden circle, at times decorated with precious stones; the most ancient of these is the crown of Constantine, or of Lombardy, (fig. 9,) commonly called the iron crown.

This celebrated crown (says Mr. Duppa,) is a broad circle of gold set with large rubies, emeralds, and sapphires. It is kept in the cathedral of Monza, in an ornamented cross, deposited over an altar, closely shut up with folding-doors of gilt brass. It is composed of six equal pieces of beaten gold, joined together by close hinges; and the jewels and embossed gold ornaments are set in a ground of blue and gold enamel, which to me was interesting, as it exhibited an exact resemblance to the workmanship of the enamelled part of a gold ornament, now in the Ashmolean museum, which once belonged to king Alfred, and is the most curious piece of antiquity in that museum. But for those who have an appetite for relics, the most important part of this crown is a narrow rim of iron, which is attached to the inside of it. This rim is about three-eighths of an inch broad, and a tenth of an inch thick, said to have been made out of one of the nails used at the crucifixion of our Saviour. The crown is said to have been presented to Constantine by his mother, the empress Helena; and the sacred iron ring was to protect him in battle.

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Agilulf, king of Lombardy, was the first person crowned with it, in 590. Charlemagne wore it at his coronation, in 774, and Napoleon received the same honour in 1805, when installed king of Italy; at this time he established the order of the iron crown, which is still acknowledged by the emperor of Austria.

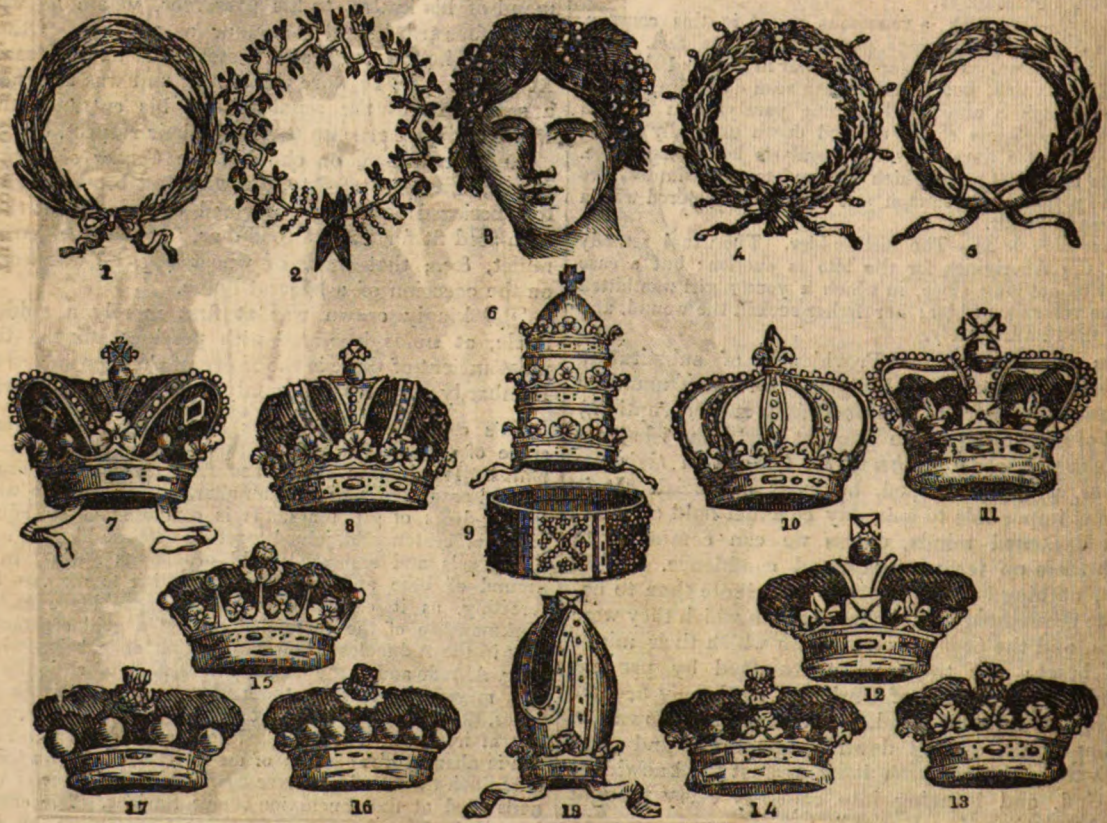
The tiara, or triple crown of the Pope of Rome, (fig. 6,) is of very singular construction; it is shaped like a high cap, surrounded by a series of three coronets or crowns; the towering shape of the tiara seems to have been in imitation of a cap formed of wool, called an *infula*, which was worn by the Greek and Roman priests when performing a sacrifice. It is supposed, that Constantine the Great, in the fifteenth century, presented the Pope with a golden crown, which the latter united with the cap. In 1303, Boniface the Eighth, then Pope, is said to have added a second coronet, as a sign of power over temporal, as well as spiritual matters; while the third coronet, which brought the tiara to its present form, was added by Urban the Fifth, who died in 1370. It is not known with any certainty on what account this triple form was assumed. Some believe it was to indicate their power over the three parts of the globe which were then known, namely, Europe, Asia, and Africa.

The engraving contains representations of four kingly crowns of modern times; fig. 11, is the British crown, worn at the coronation of George the Third; a crown of a somewhat different shape has been employed since then, but in all heraldic representations that in the engraving is copied; fig. 10, the French crown; fig. 8, the crown of Austria; fig. 7, that of the emperor of Russia.

The different orders of nobility beneath that of the king are distinguished by the various crowns. Fig. 12, is that of the prince of Wales; fig. 13, a duke; fig. 14, a marquess; fig. 15, an earl; fig. 16, a viscount; fig. 17, a baron. Fig. 18 represents the mitre of an archbishop; that of a bishop is of the same form, but without the strawberry-leaves.

The crowns worn in former times by the kings of England, have varied much in form and material. The Saxon kings had a crown consisting of a simple fillet of gold. Egbert improved its appearance by placing on the fillet a row of points or rays, and after him, Edmond *Ironside* tipped these points with pearl; William the Conqueror had on his coronet points and leaves placed alternately, each point being tipped with three pearls, while the whole crown was surmounted with a cross. William Rufus discontinued the leaves. Henry the First had a row of *fleur-de-lis*; from this time to Edward the Third, the crown was variously ornamented with points and fleur-de-lis, placed alternately; but this monarch enriched his crown with fleur-de-lis and crosses alternately, as at present. Edward the Fourth was the first who wore a close crown, with two arches of gold, embellished with pearls; and the same form, with trifling variations, has been continued to the present day. The English crown of our engraving, is called the "St. Edward's crown," and was made in imitation of the ancient crown said to be worn by that monarch, kept in Westminster Abbey till the beginning of the civil wars in England, when, with the rest of the regalia, it was seized and sold in 1642. It was prepared for the coronation of Charles the Second, and is embellished with pearls and precious stones, as diamonds, rubies, emeralds, sapphires, and has a mound of gold on the top, enriched with a fillet of the same metal, covered also with precious stones. The cap is of purple velvet, lined with white silk, and turned up with ermine.

A small crown formed of very rich materials, has, since that time, been made for each king and queen at their coronation, to be worn at the dinner.



CROWNS AND CORONETS.

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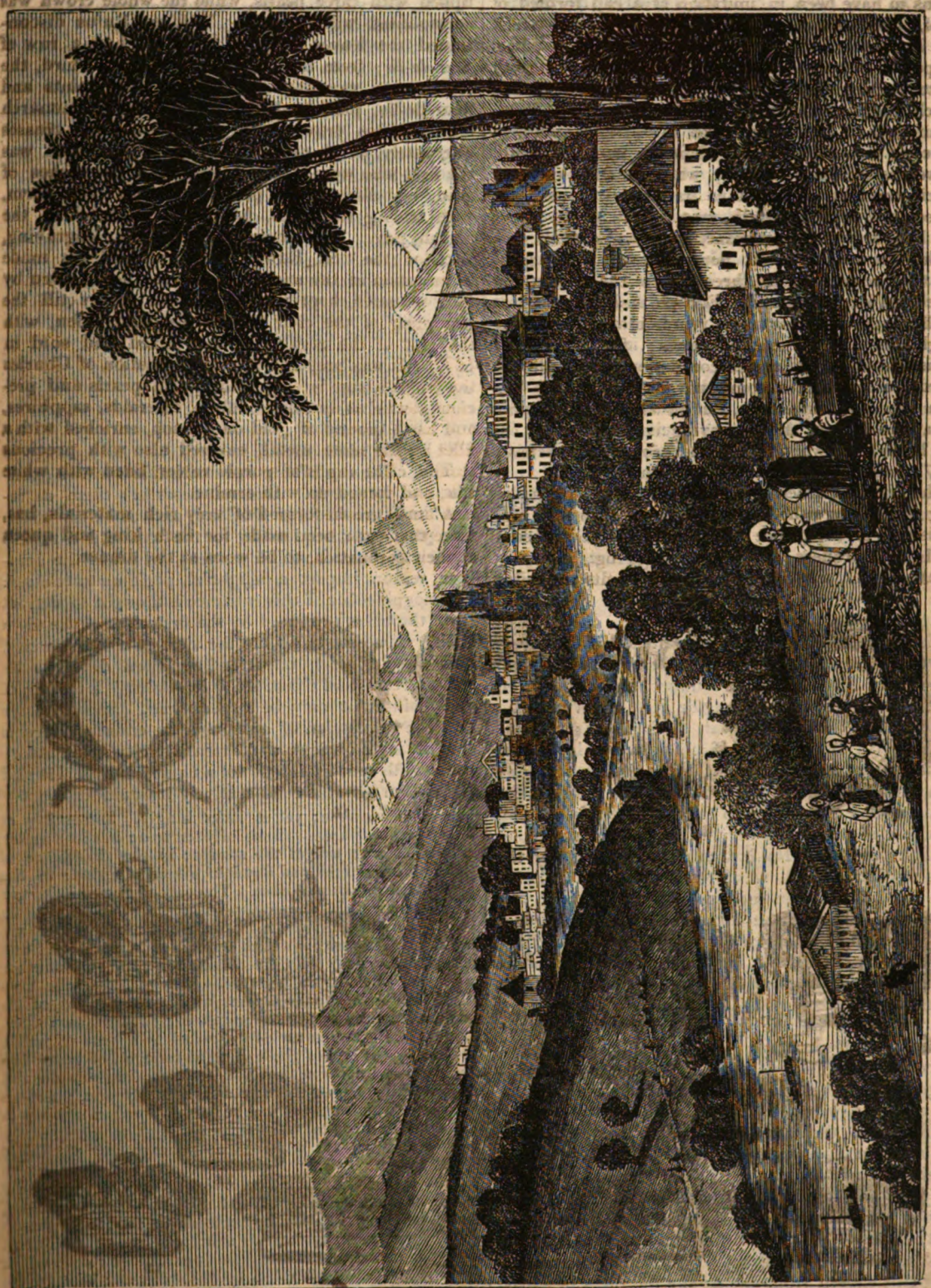

THE TOWN OF BERN, IN SWITZERLAND.

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THE TOWN OF BERN,

IN SWITZERLAND.

BERN, the capital of the canton of the same name, is one of the largest and most populous towns in Switzerland. Its origin is altogether modern: it was founded in the year 1191 by Berthold the Fifth, duke of Zähringen, who designed it as an instrument for repressing the refractory spirit of his nobles. Upon his death, in 1218, it was elevated to the rank of an imperial city by the emperor Frederic the Second, who, besides conferring upon the inhabitants many considerable privileges, is said to have also compiled for them a legislative code, which served for a long time subsequent as the basis of their civil laws. By the charter, or bull, which he then granted, the magistrates and the council of government were chosen in a general assembly of the citizens, every one of whom possessing a house in the town had a vote.

In the course of time, the citizens were divided into four tribes, or guilds, each headed by a "banneret," or standard-bearer, whose office was one of considerable dignity, and who was enabled to exercise great influence at the elections. The burghers, as a body, did not long retain their political privileges; the members of the council came gradually to hold their functions for life, and to fill up all vacancies in their number from a few powerful families, without reference to the general assemblies. At an early period of its history Bern was involved, after the custom of the middle ages, in constant broils with the feudal lords in its neighbourhood. Some of these, indeed, became burghers of the rising city, and thus eventually obtained a share in its government; but others struggled against it to the extent of their power, till in the end they were all defeated. Their territories passed successively into the hands of the conquerors, either by sale or surrender; and the authority of the city being thus extended, its governors became the rulers of a comparatively large and populous state.

The rising strength of Bern excited the jealousy of the empire scarcely a century after its foundation. Rodolph of Hapsburg, the founder of the House of Austria, and his son Albert the First, strove in vain to humble it; and the defeat of the emperor, Louis the Fifth (of Bavaria), in 1339, served only to consolidate its power, and raise it to the first rank among the states of Western Helvetia. A few years afterwards it was admitted into the Swiss confederation, of which it eventually became the largest and most populous canton. Its last conquest was that of the Pays de Vaud, which was wrested from the Duke of Savoy in 1536, in consequence of an attack made by him upon Geneva, the ally of Bern. From that time forward, the various acquisitions of territory which the city had made, remained peaceably annexed to it, and quietly governed by *baillis*, chosen from among the members of the council, until the changes brought about by the French revolution, and the triumphs of Buonaparte. A French army entered the canton in 1798, and met a brave resistance; but the government being destitute of energy and decision, the enemy penetrated to the capital, which they plundered in their usual manner. Henceforward, the absolute supremacy of the city as the ruling power of the whole canton ceased. By the constitution of 1815, the country districts obtained the power of returning, through the agency of electoral colleges, ninety-nine out of the two hundred and ninety-nine members of the sovereign council; two hundred being still chosen from among the burghers of Bern, by a commission of the council itself. Yet this preponderance on the part of the city was a source of dissatisfaction to the rest of the canton; and in the revolutionary ferment which agitated Switzerland as well as other countries of Europe in the latter part of 1830, its removal was demanded. A new constitution was completed by the middle of the following year; extensive popular changes were made,—the representative system was placed on a new footing, the members of the council were elected by the town and country districts, according to their population, and the last remnant of the ancient supremacy of the burghers of Bern was entirely obliterated.

The situation of Bern is remarkable. It stands upon the left bank of the rapid Aar, which sweeps in a sudden bend round three of its sides; the fourth opens towards the west, upon the neck of the little promontory thus formed, and is fortified. The rocky bed of the river is much below the level of the town; and its steep, craggy banks, serve for a considerable distance as a natural rampart. Placed in this elevated position, Bern is seen to great advantage, especially from the opposite side of the Aar.

As we descended the hill to the bridge, (says a modern writer,) it stood out brightly on its beautiful peninsula; houses and trees, churches and gardens, hanging one above another, like the sunny terraces of Italy, all blended in harmonious confusion, while the rushing Aar, green and beautiful, swept proudly round its base, encircled in its turn by sloping banks full of the bland and pastoral character of beauty which marks its sweet vicinity. We were cheated out of the silver Alps by a mountain of clouds, which very ungenteelly put its wool-packs in the way; but the picture sustained itself, and superbly too, even without those powerful auxiliaries.

The canton of Bern is remarkable for the excellence of its roads. Simond describes them as resembling the best of England, and as being wider. The principal road leading to the capital is a superb causeway planted with lime-trees, which in the summer season impart a delightful perfume to the air: the magnificence of this entrance is thought to detract from the effect produced by the first view of the town itself. It seems to denote the vicinity of a large city, and when "quiet, unpretending Bern develops its steep streets and cloistered colonnades," a feeling of disappointment may be experienced. Simond says that the impression of a stranger on entering Bern is that it is an ancient and extensive city; yet before the twelfth century it had not a name, and its size and population are still comparatively insignificant.

It is a republic; yet it looks kingly. Something of Roman majesty appears in its lofty terraces; in those massy arches on each side of the streets; in the abundance of water flowing night and day into gigantic basins; in the magnificent avenues of trees. The very silence and absence of bustle, a certain stateliness and reserved demeanour in the inhabitants, by showing it to be not a money-making town, implies that its wealth springs from more solid and permanent sources than trade can afford, and that another spirit animates its inhabitants. In short, of all the first-sight impressions and guesses about Bern, that of its being a Roman town would be nearer right than any other. Luxury at Bern seems wholly directed to objects of public utility: by the side of those gigantic terraces, of those fine fountains and noble shades, you see none but simple and solid dwellings, yet scarcely any beggarly ones; not an equipage to be seen, but many a country wagon coming to market with a capital team of horses or oxen.

Two things (says another writer, the author of *Slight Reminiscences of the Rhine, &c.*) strike a stranger on approaching Bern. The first is the marked attention paid to the wants and comforts of the humbler classes of society, for whom the path seems smoothed, the benches placed, the shelves to rest their loads upon arranged with paternal care. Nothing here is magnificent except the roads, which are broad and noble, shaded by fine trees, and kept in the highest order; but everything denotes an equality of comforts. The pageantry with which an absolute government (however narrow may be its sphere of action,) loves to

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surround itself is here dispensed with. There are few carriages—no shows—I believe no theatre [this is a mistake]; but (and this is the second point that fixes the stranger's attention) instead of the pompous trappings of an arrogant aristocracy, the eye is recreated by the sight of a happy population, well fed, well dressed, well lodged, and having an air of contentment about them indicative of the absence of anxiety.

Bern is justly accounted one of the neatest cities of Europe; regularity without monotony is its characteristic. The principal streets are broad, and of the length of the town from east to west, in which direction they run parallel to each other, and not quite straight, according to Coxe, but gently curved; "I do not recollect many streets in England," says Mr. Inglis, "superior to the Grande Rue of Bern." This regular disposition of the city has not been the gradual work of time, but it is to be traced to a very early period; Bern was rebuilt on its present plan after its entire destruction by fire in 1405. The streets are abundantly supplied with fountains decorated with an extensive variety of appendages, and often presenting the oddest appearance imaginable, with their "stiff warriors, grogram dames, and allegorical conundrums which might puzzle even Spenser himself." The houses are generally lofty and handsome, their material being stone, and their style of building uniform. Most of the streets have arcades, affording a sheltered communication with the shops.

These "side-galleries" (says Simond,) are the prototypes of the Palais Royal at Paris, and of several new constructions in that capital and in London, as they were originally imitated from the Lombard towns, which, from their superior state of civilization, were the models of the Imperial towns of Germany and Switzerland as to architecture and municipal institutions; therefore they should not be too severely criticised: the pillars indeed are too massy, and the arches are too low for the shops to have sufficient light and air. Covered ways screening passengers from the Winter storms seem absolutely requisite in a situation like that of Bern, elevated to more than 1700 feet above the level of the sea; they would scarcely be less useful in a tropical climate, and their convenience is so obvious in all climates, that they will be adopted in time all over Europe.

The public buildings of Bern require little in the way of description, though Coxe says that they are built "in a noble simplicity of style, and announce the riches and grandeur of this republic." At the head of them stands the münster, or cathedral—"a noble piece of Gothic architecture," according to the same writer—which dates from the rebuilding of the town in the early part of the fifteenth century. All that need be said of it is, that it has an unfinished steeple—some curious sculpture in the chief entrance—and some fine painted glass in the windows. But the terrace on which it stands deserves more notice. This is an artificial platform (the *Plateforme*, indeed, is its name), raised at a great expense, more than a hundred feet above the river at its base, and planted with noble chestnut trees.

The chief attraction, however, of the *Plateforme*, and that which has rendered it the favourite walk of the inhabitants, is the magnificent view which it affords,—a view, which as Coxe observes would be most striking anywhere, but the effect of which is greatly heightened when seen from the midst of a large town. Tourists speak of it with rapture.

The Aar (says Mr. Inglis,) sweeps in a noble stream below, gardens in terraces hang upon the bank, which for a mile in length presents a beautiful declivity, covered with fruit-trees, and evergreens, and weeping willows, and enamelled with the dyes of a thousand flowers. Beyond the river the eye ranges over a country rich in every kind of verdure, sprinkled with villages, and thickly studded with white houses and cottages; and beyond stretches the vast line of mountains, their summits distinguishable from the clouds only by their greater purity. I frequently returned to this spot while I remained in Bern, and contemplated this magnificent amphitheatre in all the varieties lent to it by the different lights and hues of morning, noon, and evening, and so vivid and pleasing are my recollections of the hours I spent there, that were I asked to enumerate the advantages of different spots as to places of residence, I should certainly bear this platform in mind. Many other cities have fine promenades, and *pointes de vue*, as the French call them; but then an hour or two, perhaps, is required to get at them; whereas one may walk from any part of Bern to the platform in ten minutes.

The mountains here spoken of are the Bernese Alps; they present one of the most interesting objects in nature. At a distance of forty miles, the whole quarter of the horizon from south to west is terminated by a bold outline of extraordinary forms, rude and strange, perhaps, in themselves, yet blending in perfect harmony. Every instant is marked by a change of scene, every hue is successively displayed, till the whole central chain of the Alps, so lately burning under the level rays of the setting sun, presents only a succession of pale and livid forms sinking into night.

It is at first difficult (says Simond,) to account for the new and lively interest a knowledge of the names of these mountains adds to the contemplation of the prospect, but this implies a knowledge of their geography or respective positions which at once explains shades of colour and of distinctness unnoticed before, and enables us to mark the hidden lake or deep valley by the scarcely perceptible vapour rising between these distant ridges. Thus it is botany adds to the pleasure we receive from plants, astronomy and mineralogy to the contemplation of heaven and earth.

Among the public buildings of Bern, besides the cathedral, we may particularize two large hospitals,—the *Burgerspital*, or Burgher Hospital, and the *Inselspital*, or Island Hospital. There is a noble edifice of freestone, serving as a prison and house of correction; it is the largest of its kind in Switzerland. The Town Hall is a lumbering mass of antiquity, and the Corn Magazine, which rests upon pillars, a large and splendid building. The Library, the Museum, the Arsenal, the Theatre, or *Hotel de Musique*, the Casino upon the Platform, and some charitable institutions besides those mentioned, all contribute to that general air of neatness and elegance which pervades the city. The Museum contains some excellent models of the Alps. Before the invasion of the French, the Arsenal was well stocked with arms and ammunition for 60,000 men, Coxe says; they emptied it, of course, at the same time that they plundered the treasury of more than 30,000,000 of francs in gold and silver. There are two *barrières*, which are spoken of as handsome structures; near one of them, that of Aarberg, is the *bärengraben*, or bear-ditch, in which a family of bears has been constantly maintained at the expense of the state for some hundred years.

One of the many terraces adorning the town contains on its parapet-wall, which is 108 feet in height, an inscription recording a singular accident, which happened there about the middle of the seventeenth century. A young student having mounted a horse, which was grazing on the terrace, his companions frighted the animal, and caused it to leap over. The horse was killed, but though the imprudent rider had several limbs broken, he survived.

Looking over (says Simond), we observed that the wall projects gradually below, forming an inclined plane, which, though little deviating from the vertical, must have retarded the fall. As if there was something catching in it, a woman condemned to the wheel-barrow for some crime, and employed in sweeping the terrace with other prisoners, took her opportunity and jumped over at the same place two years ago, but she was killed on the spot.

The practice here alluded to of employing convicts in chains to clean the streets, existed till lately in

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Bern, and was often spoken of by travellers, as the most offensive feature of the town. The system was perfectly inefficient; the labour was imposed by way of punishment, but it is described as having been "idleness scarcely disguised." The criminals themselves were hardened by habitual exposure in so degrading a situation, and their amendment became consequently hopeless; while the mockery of a punishment to which they were subjected, carried with it nothing to deter others from evil-doing.

The inhabitants of Bern profess the Reformed faith, and are about fourteen thousand in number. Like their brethren of the canton in general, they are a good-humoured, civil people, though not always comely to the eye. The peasantry still retain the homely fashion of bidding *guten morgen* (good morning) to the passing stranger, touching their hats with a natural courteousness wholly devoid of servility. The dragon-fly caps and sulphur hats of the Bernese females are as well known to us by prints, as the sweeping roofs, and "all the delightful sun-repelling projections and picturesque redundancies" of the Bernese cottages. The straw-hat, more especially, belongs to the peasantry, and is gradually superseded on approaching the capital, by the other head-dress mentioned, which is described as a very odd-looking black skull-cap, standing stiffly off the face, like the fly-caps of our great grandmothers, or rather like the two wings of a butterfly.

We thought at first (says Simond) that they were made of wire, but found the materials were black horse-hair,—a perfect coat of mail in millinery, passing from one generation to another, never the worse for wear; the hair under it descends in two enormous tresses, from the back of the head down to the heels.

The peculiar costume of the lower class of females may be seen fully displayed in the market, which, though rather monotonous in its air, from the sameness of the dress, and dull from the prevalence of black colours, still presents an original scene. The women are described by the authoress of *Slight Reminiscences*, &c., as "amazingly rugged and sinewy," even the youngest of them; the old ones are perfect in their way,—

Their black caps, with deep flapping veil-like borders, gray hair hanging down the back in two long tresses, firm step, bronzed complexions, and the bold and scrutinizing expression of their time-touched features, recall to mind the charmed women of Walter Scott. They are the Ulla Troils, Magdalen Græmes, and Elspeths of his rich imagination, embodied in all their brawny awfulness.

The costly finery which is exposed for sale in this market is remarkable, when it is considered that the purchasers are principally country girls; it exhibits a fancy display of beads, foils, and silver filagree.

Many of the inhabitants are afflicted with those peculiar excrescences from the throat, which are known by the appellation of *goitres*.

They live in a delightful country, (says a writer before quoted,) and in an open and elevated situation, not jammed in between mountains, but breathing freely, with a bright sky, and a fine soil, and a rapid river, and abundant means of comfortable existence, and yet a striking proportion of the children look like mandarins, with bald eyes and distended bodies, and many with the boneless-looking faces of the cretin, even when they are not of that awful race of the mental pariahs. If they have not already, one may safely affirm that they will be favoured in time, as their parents probably have been before them; luckily they do not appear to consider this enormity as a grievance, but, like the monster-headed members of the court of Comus,

Boast themselves more comely than before.

Bern is the birth-place of the celebrated Albert Haller. Its Academy was converted into an University in the year 1834, and with the other establishments for education which it possesses, it affords ample means of instruction to the inhabitants of all classes. The Institution of M. de Fellenberg* is situated only a few miles from the city.

* See *Saturday Magazine*, Vol. V., p. 234.

THE INDIAN RUBBER TREE, (*Usquahuitl.*)

II.

In a former volume† we gave an account of the Indian Rubber Tree, from WOODVILLE's *Medical Botany*. The following additional particulars, given by a Spanish writer on India, in the latter part of the sixteenth century, are curious. From this account we learn, that the ancient Indian kings in South America had their fools and jesters, as well as the kings and nobles of Europe‡, and also that Indian rubber was applied, centuries ago, on the other side of the Atlantic, in making waterproof cloaks.

"There is a tree which they (the Indians) call *Usquahuitl*; it is held in great estimation, and grows in the hot country. It is not a very high tree, the leaves are broad, and of an ashy colour.

"This tree yields a white milky substance, thick and gummy, and in great abundance. To obtain it they wound the tree with an axe, or a cutlass, and from these wounds the liquor drops. The natives collect it in round vessels of different sizes, called in their language *Xicalli*, but by us Calabashes. In these they allow it to settle in round balls, of the size most convenient for the purposes to which they are about to apply them. When quite set, they boil them in water, in which state the gum is called *Ulli*.

"The Indians who have not got Calabashes, smear their bodies over with it, for nature is never without a resource; and when it becomes dry they remove the whole incrustation, which comes off in the form of a very smooth membrane, its thickness depending upon the will of the party collecting. They then make it into balls, and boil them as before.

"Anciently they used to play with these balls, striking them against the ground, and making them rise to a great height. But in the game of the *Pelota* it was not struck against the ground, but caught upon the hip, or the shoulder.

"From the *Ulli* an oil is extracted, of great value in various applications. It was formerly much used by the natives, nor have they forgotten its properties now: for it is soft and lubricous, and of especial effect in removing any tightness of the chest. The oil is extracted from the *Ulli* by heat; it starts out in a manner to create admiration, leaving me nought to compare it unto.

"The oil is drunk mixed with cocoa, and, indeed, it softens *any other medicine*, however hard its quality. It is also found of great service in stopping hæmorrhages, for which it is taken internally.

"The coagulated *Ulli* is so strong in itself, that a breast-plate made of it no arrow will pass; for being of a nature leathery and membranous, it ejects the point.

"The kings and the nobles were accustomed anciently to make shoes of the *Ulli*, and to order their fools and jesters, the hump-backed and the dwarfs of the palace, to be shod therewith, in order to make them sport; for the wearers could not step without falling, which, with their awkward actions, gave rise to much jesting and merriment.

"Our people (the Spaniards) used it in waxing their cloaks, which were made of coarse canvass, so as to make them resist water; and, in truth, it is of great effect in resisting water, but not so the sun, for the rays thereof melt it."

[TORQUEDAMA, *Monarquia Indiana*, Madrid, 1723.]

† Vol. II., p. 47. ‡ Vol. IX., p. 185.

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THE SPANISH ARMADA.

ATTEND all ye who list to hear our noble England's praise,
I tell of the thrice-famous deeds she wrought in ancient days,
When that great fleet invincible against her bore in vain
The richest spoils of Mexico, the stoutest hearts of Spain.
It was about the lovely close of a warm Summer day,
There came a gallant merchant-ship full sail to Plymouth Bay;
Her crew hath seen Castille's black fleet, beyond Aurigny's isle,
At earliest twilight, on the waves lie heaving many a mile;
At sunrise she escaped their van, by God's especial grace;
And the tall Pinta, till the noon, had held her close in chase.
Forthwith a guard at every gun was placed along the wall;
The beacon blazed upon the roof of Edgcumbe's lofty hall;
Many a light fishing-bark put out to pry along the coast;
And with loose rein and bloody spur rode inland many a post.
With his white hair unbonneted the stout old sheriff comes;
Behind him march the halberdiers, before him sound the drums;
His yeomen, round the market-cross, make clear an ample space,
For there behoves him to set up the standard of her Grace.
And haughtily the trumpets peal, and gaily dance the bells,
As slow upon the labouring wind the royal blazon swells.
Look how the lion of the sea lifts up his ancient crown,
And underneath his deadly paw treads the gay lilies down.
So stalked he when he turned to flight, on that famed Picard field,
Bohemia's plume, and Genoa's bow, and Cæsar's eagle shield:
So glared he when at Agincourt in wrath he turned to bay,
And crushed and torn beneath his claws the princely hunters lay.
Ho! strike the flag-staff deep, sir knight: ho! scatter flowers, fair maids:
Ho! gunners fire a loud salute: ho! gallants, draw your blades:
Thou sun, shine on her joyously—ye breezes waft her wide;
Our glorious SEMPER EADEM—the banner of our pride.
The freshening breeze of eve unfurled that banner's massy fold,
The parting gleam of sunshine kissed that haughty scroll of gold;
Night sank upon the dusky beach, and on the purple sea,—
Such night in England ne'er had been, nor e'er again shall be.
From Eddystone to Berwick bounds, from Lynn to Milford Bay,
That time of slumber was as bright and busy as the day;
For swift to east and swift to west the warning radiance spread;
High on St. Michael's Mount it shone—it shone on Beachy Head.
Far on the deep the Spaniard saw, along each southern shire,
Cape beyond cape, in endless range, those twinkling points of fire;
The fisher left his skiff to rock on Tamar's glittering waves,
The rugged miners poured to war from Mendip's sunless caves.
O'er Longleat's towers, o'er Cranbourne's oaks, the fiery herald flew;
He roused the shepherds of Stonehenge, the rangers of Beaulieu.
Right sharp and quick the bells all night rang out from Bristol town,
And ere the day three hundred horse had met on Clifton down;
The sentinel on Whitehall Gate looked forth into the night,
And saw o'erhanging Richmond Hill the streak of blood-red light.
Then bugle's note and cannon's roar the death-like silence broke,
And with one start, and with one cry, the royal city woke.
At once on all her stately gates arose the answering fires;
At once the wild alarum clashed from all her reeling spires;
From all the batteries of the Tower pealed loud the voice of fear;
And all the thousand masts of Thames sent back a louder cheer:
And from the farthest wards was heard the rush of hurrying feet,
And the broad streams of flags and pikes dashed down each roaring street:
And broader still became the blaze, and louder still the din,
As fast from every village round the horse came spurring in:
And eastward straight, from wild Blackheath, the warlike errand went,
And roused in many an ancient hall the gallant 'squires of Kent.
Southward from Surrey's pleasant hills flew those bright couriers forth;
High on bleak Hampstead's swarthy moor they started for the north;
And on, and on, without a pause, untired they bounded still,
All night from tower to tower they sprang—they sprang from hill to hill,
Till the proud Peak unfurled the flag o'er Darwin's rocky dales—
Till like volcanoes flared to heaven the stormy hills of Wales—
Till twelve fair counties saw the blaze on Malvern's lonely height—
Till streamed in crimson on the wind the Wrekin's crest of light—
Till broad and fierce the star came forth on Ely's stately fane,
And tower and hamlet rose in arms o'er all the boundless plain;
Till Belvoir's lordly terraces the sign to Lincoln sent,
And Lincoln sped the message on o'er the wide vale of Trent;
Till Skiddaw saw the fire that burned on Gaunt's embattled pile,
And the red glare on Skiddaw roused the burghers of Carlisle.

MACAULAY.

IF Providence has thought fit to write in cyphers, shall he be blamed who endeavours to give a key to its works, because some men cannot distinguish one stroke from another in the cypher!—STILLINGFLEET

THE POPULAR SUPERSTITIONS, LEGENDS, AND FICTIONS, OF THE MIDDLE AGES.

A WORK of great utility might be compiled upon the origin of popular fictions, and the transformation of similar tales from age to age, and from country to country. The Mythology of one period would then appear to pass into the romance of the next century, and that into the nursery-tale of subsequent ages.—SIR WALTER SCOTT.

I.

ON THE ANCIENT INHABITANTS OF EUROPE, AND THEIR SUBSEQUENT DIVISION, &c.—NORTHERN MYTHOLOGY TRACED TO THE EASTERN INVADERS.—THE SOURCE AND STREAM OF MODERN SUPERSTITIONS, FABLES, ETC.

THE different characters that mark the civilized nations of the globe, may be ascribed to the use, and abuse, of reason; which so variously shapes, and so artificially composes, the manners and opinions of an European or a Chinese. But the operation of instinct is more sure and simple than that of reason: it is much easier to ascertain the appetites of a quadruped, than the speculations of a philosopher; and the savage tribes of mankind, as they approach nearer to the condition of animals, preserve a stronger resemblance to themselves and to each other. The uniform stability of their manners, is the natural consequence of the imperfection of their faculties. Reduced to a similar situation, their wants, their desires, their enjoyments, still continue the same: and the influence of food or climate, which, in a more improved state of society, is suspended, or subdued, by so many moral causes, most powerfully contributes to form, and to maintain, the national character of barbarians.

The Scythians and Tartars were a warlike people, renowned for their invincible courage and rapid conquests; and their arms have spread terror and devastation over the most fertile and warlike countries of Europe. The tribes of Scythia, distinguished by the modern appellation of *hordes*, assumed the form of a numerous and increasing family, which, in the course of successive generations, has been propagated from the same original stock. The meanest and most ignorant of the Tartars preserve with conscious pride the inestimable treasure of their genealogy; and, whatever distinctions of rank may have been introduced by the unequal distribution of pastoral wealth, they mutually respect themselves and each other, as the descendants of the first founder of the tribe.

The constant operation of various and permanent causes contributed to unite the vagrant hordes into national communities, under the command of a supreme head. The most successful of the Tartar princes assumed the military command, to which he was entitled by the superiority either of merit or of power. He was raised to the throne by the acclamation of his equals; and the title of *Khan* expresses, in the language of the north of Asia, the full extent of the regal dignity. The right of hereditary succession was long confined to the blood of the founder of the monarchy; and at this moment all the Khans, who reign from Crimea to the wall of China, are the lineal descendants of Zingis. But, as it is the indispensable duty of a Tartar sovereign to lead his warlike subjects to the field, the claims of an infant are often disregarded; and some royal kinsman, distinguished by his age and valour, is intrusted with the sword and sceptre of his predecessor.

The rudiments of a feudal government may be discovered in the constitution of the Scythian or Tartar nations; but the perpetual conflict of those hostile nations has sometimes terminated in the establishment of a powerful and despotic empire. The victor, enriched by the tribute, and fortified by the arms, of dependent kings, has spread his conquests

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over Europe or Asia: the successful shepherds of the North have submitted to the confinement of arts, of laws, and of cities; and the introduction of luxury, after destroying the freedom of the people, has undermined the foundation of the throne.

It was the sudden irruption of Odin and his warlike Scythians from the Asiatic continent, that overwhelmed, and finally expelled, the Celtic tribes who had inhabited the greater part of Europe from the earliest ages. Flying from their Gothic invaders, they took possession of the western shores of Britain and of Gaul five hundred years before Christ, according to the chronology of Julius Cæsar, in his Commentaries. But the people here mentioned by Cæsar were not the aboriginal inhabitants of Britain, but the *Cimbrii*, a second race from the same source as the *Celtæ*, who had settled here five hundred years anterior to the era assigned by the Romans for its colonization.

That the Celts were the prior inhabitants of Europe admits not of a doubt; the remains of their language may be traced in every country; and the Cumraig of South, and Gaelic of North, Britain, plainly evince their origin.

That there existed a race of people in these islands before the arrival of the Cimbric tribes, is manifest, from the venerable relics of their language, arts, and arms, to be found on every hand.

These inhabitants (says a celebrated *Cumraig* writer) possessed the whole of South Britain, long before the *Cumraig*, or Welsh, came into this country and expelled them. As the greater part of the Cumraig names are purely Celtic or Gaelic, they must have been imposed in ages vastly prior to the arrival of the Cimbrii in Britain.

The interior parts of Britain (says Cæsar) are inhabited by those whom tradition assigns as the original possessors of it; the maritime parts by those who passed over from Belgium, in order to invade it; almost all of whom, on the ceasing of hostilities, took upon them the names of the provinces from whence they sprang, and remained there.

Tacitus, in his brief but concise account, gives further stability to this assertion. "All circumstances considered, (says he,) it appears probable, that the Gauls were the original inhabitants of Britain." Venerable Bede, one of the most respectable of our ancient chroniclers, asserts, that—

These islands were first inhabited *only* by Britons, from whence the name of *Britain*, who crossing over from Armorica (*Armoricanus tractus*,) to Britain, as is reported, took possession of the southern parts, and reigned over the kingdom. By Armorica is meant that part of Gaul which lies directly opposite to Britain, on the other side of the channel. Cæsar, in a different account of the Celtic or Gallic warfare, informs us, that even in his time, Diviaticus, leader of the Gauls, bore sway over these islands called Britain.

Pliny also mentions a people opposite to Britain called the Britanni, from whom the first people of Britain seem to have originated.

The present generation (says an able historian) is fully satisfied with the simple and rational opinion, that the islands of Great Britain and Ireland were gradually peopled from the adjacent continent of Gaul. From the extremities of Kent to the promontories of Caithness and Ulster, the memory of a Celtic origin is distinctly preserved, in the perpetual resemblance of language, religion, and manners.

It is a point universally established, that islands have been settled from their contiguous continents. In those islands scattered over the surface of that immense world of waters, the Pacific Ocean, the inhabitants have ever been found to possess a similarity of form and features, as well as of manners, language, rites, and ceremonies, to the parent hordes from whence they sprang. Those innumerable islands which are found lying to the east of the Gulfs of Sunda and Carpentaria, all evince their connexion with that great southern continent, and, however distant, the grand discriminating features are universally kept up amid the pathless regions of continental India. On these islands of perpetual storm, we recognise the features of the solitary Kamtschatkan, and the shivering Samoied. The boundless ocean of colonization embraces continents with their contiguous islands in its course, and it flows with a never-ending perpetuity of motion.

The islands of Great Britain lying in an immediate vicinity of the western continent, it is natural to suppose that their original colonies were drawn from the neighbouring shores of Belgium and of Gaul, then inhabited by numberless tribes of Celts and Gauls, who (all) spoke a language similar in its import, though, like all other dialects, varying in its idiom and orthographical construction. The best writers of that period agree with regard to the similarity of their manners, customs, &c., which continued with little variation through the immense lapse of nearly one thousand years. Even their pristine language has remained almost pure and unaltered to these times, in various parts of the kingdom.

From the manners and customs of these people, their mythology, superstitious rites, and exploits, originated nearly the whole of those strange romances generally called "popular fictions." The particular histories of these romances, and their effects, will be traced in the succeeding papers of this series. Although this species of what may be called the literature of the vulgar, is now rapidly becoming extinct, much curious and interesting matter, and many satisfactory explanations, calculated to disabuse weak minds, which may still retain early impressions of superstition and error, will be developed in the inquiry.

How admirably are dogs adapted to their respective spheres! The Greenland dog to wastes of untrodden snow; the shepherd to mountain pastures; the cur, the mastiff, and the bull-dog, as guardians of their master's property; hunting dogs of various descriptions to clear the country from wild and predatory animals; blood-hounds to find out the haunts of robbers, or to recover stolen goods; the St. Bernard variety for the saving of human life.

If the species were suddenly annihilated, how could their services be supplied? how could the shivering natives of frost-bound regions pass over their wastes of snow? thousands who now rest securely on their beds, must rise and watch in darkness and in storms; many a lost traveller would perish; and innumerable evils, which are checked by these faithful warders, would require continual vigilance to circumvent, or courage to ward off.—*Domesticated Animals.*

THAT which I have found the best recreation both to my mind and body, whensoever either of them stands in need of it, is music, which exercises at once both my body and soul; especially when I play myself; for then, methinks, the same motion that my hand makes upon the instrument, the instrument makes upon my heart. It calls in my spirits, composes my thoughts, delights my ear, recreates my mind, and so not only fits me for after business, but fills my heart, at the present, with pure and useful thoughts; so that when the music sounds the sweetliest in my ears, truth commonly flows the clearest into my mind. And hence it is that I find my soul is become more harmonious, by being accustomed so much to harmony, and so averse to all manners of discord, that the least jarring sounds, either in notes or words, seem very harsh and unpleasant to me.—BISHOP BEVERIDGE.

SWEET were the sauce would please each kind of taste,
The life, likewise, were pure that never swerved;
For spiteful tongues, in cankered stomachs placed,
Deem worst of things which best, percase, deserved.
But what of that? This medicine may suffice,—
To scorn the rest, and seek to please the wise.

SIR. W. RALEGH.

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SPIDERS. II.

No animals fall more universally under observation than the *Spiders*; we see them everywhere, fabricating their snares, or lying in wait for their prey; in our houses, in the fields, on the trees, shrubs, flowers, grass, and in the earth: and if we watch their proceedings, we may sometimes see them, without the aid of wings, ascend into the air, where, carried by their web, as by an air-balloon, they can elevate themselves to a great height. The webs they spin and weave are also equally dispersed; they often fill the air, so as to be troublesome to us, and cover the earth. M. Mendo Trigozo relates, that at Lisbon, on the 6th of November, 1811, the Tagus was covered, for more than half an hour, by these webs, and that innumerable Spiders accompanied them which swam on the surface of the water. I have given an account of the instruments by which they weave them; and shall now say a few words upon those by which their Creator has enabled them to produce the material of which they are formed.

At the extremity of the abdomen, in a roundish depressed space, are four or six jointed, teat-like organs. The exterior pair is the longest, consisting of three joints; but these have no orifices for the transmission of threads: the other four consist each of two joints, with innumerable little orifices, in some species amounting to a thousand, from which the web issues at will, or they are bristled with minute spinnerets, each furnishing a thread. These teats are connected with internal reservoirs, which yield the fluid matter forming the thread, or web. These reservoirs, in some species, consist of *four*, and in others, of *six* vessels folded several times, and communicating with other vessels, in which the material that forms their web is first elaborated.

The threads, after they issue from these organs, are united, or kept separate, according to the wills or wants of the animal; and it is stated, that from them certain Spiders can spin *three* kinds of silk. Their ordinary thread is so fine, that it would require twenty-four united to equal the thickness of that of the silk-worm. These threads, fine as they are, will bear, without breaking, a weight sextuple that of the Spider that spins them. They employ their web, generally, for three different purposes; in the construction of their snares, of their own habitations, and of a cocoon to contain their eggs.

Some species of Spiders are gifted with a particular talent for building: they hollow out dens, bore galleries, elevate vaults, build subterraneous bridges, and construct also entrances to their habitations, and adapt doors to them, which want nothing but bolts, for, without any exaggeration, they work upon a hinge, and are fitted to a frame. The interior of their habitations is no less remarkable for the extreme neatness which reigns there; whatever be the humidity of the soil in which they are constructed, water never penetrates them; the walls are nicely covered with a tapestry of silk, having usually the lustre of satin, and almost always of a dazzling whiteness.

These habitations are found in an argillaceous kind of red earth, in which the Spiders bore tubes about three inches in depth, and ten lines in width. The walls of these tubes are covered first with a kind of coarse mortar, and then with a coat of finer, which is as smooth and regular as if a trowel had been passed over it; but before the adroit workwoman lays this, she covers the coarser work with a web, on which she glues her silken tapestry. The door that closes her apartment is still more remarkable in its structure. From its outward appearance, we should think that it was formed of a mass of earth coarsely worked, and covered internally by a solid web; but divided vertically, it will be seen to be formed of more than thirty alternate layers of earth and web, emboxed in each other like a set of weights for small scales. These layers all terminate in the hinge, and the door will shut of itself. The advantage of this to the Spider is evident, for whether she darts out upon her prey, or retreats from an enemy, she is not delayed by having to shut the door. The principal instruments by which she performs her various operations, are her mandibles and her spinners; but as no one has ever seen her at work upon her habitation, it cannot be known exactly how these organs, and probably her anterior legs, are employed in her building.

The insects that frequent the waters require predacious animals to keep them within due limits, as well as those that inhabit the earth; and the Water-Spider is one of the most remarkable upon whom that office is devolved by her Creator. To do this her instinct instructs her to fabricate a kind of *diving-bell* in the bosom of that element. She usually selects still water for this purpose. Her house is an oval cocoon, filled with air, and lined with silk, from which threads issue in every direction, and are fastened to the surrounding plants; in this cocoon, which is open below, she watches for her prey, and even appears to pass the Winter, when she closes the opening. It is most commonly entirely under water, but its inhabitant has filled it with air for her respiration, which enables her to live in it. She conveys the air to it in the following manner:—She usually swims upon her back, when her abdomen is enveloped in a bubble of air, and appears like a globe of quicksilver; with this she enters her cocoon, and displacing an equal mass of water, again ascends for a second lading, till she has sufficiently filled her house with it, so as to expel all the water. The males construct similar habitations. How these little animals can envelop their abdomen with an air-bubble, and retain it till they enter their cells, is still one of nature's mysteries that have not been explained. We cannot help, however, admiring and adoring the wisdom, power, and goodness, manifested in this singular provision, enabling an animal that breathes the atmospheric air, to fill her house with it under the water; and which has instructed her in a secret art, by which she can clothe part of her body with air, as with a garment, which she can put off when it answers her purpose. This is a kind of attraction and repulsion that mocks all our inquiries.

[Abridged from KIRBY's *Bridgewater Treatise*.]

NOTES ON FOREST TREES. No. VI.

THE LARCH, (*Pinus larix.*)

THE Larch seems to form a kind of connecting link between the evergreen trees and those in which the leaves are deciduous, resembling the former in general appearance, in the form of its leaves, and its resinous productions, and the latter from losing its foliage in the Autumn, and renewing it in the following Spring. There are three principal species of this tree,—the White, the Red, and the Black; the first, our common Larch, a native of Europe and Northern Asia, and the two last of North America. The stem of the Larch is extremely beautiful in form, gradually tapering from the base to the summit; the colour of the leaves is of a much brighter green, and more pleasing to the eye, than that of the evergreen firs. In almost all cases the Larch-forests, in a state of nature, are found nearly unmixed with trees of any other species; this arises from its quick growth, which so far exceeds that of other forest-timber, as

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to cause it to over-top its neighbours so rapidly as to deprive them of air and light, and in this manner check their growth. This happens in the Summer-season, when all plants require their influence; on the other hand, losing its leaves in the Autumn, it is unable to shield them in the Winter from the cold winds of the season, so that it cannot, like the Scotch Fir, become a protecting nurse to a young plantation.

THE LARCH.

The timber of the Larch is extremely tough and durable, and so elastic in its nature, as to bend before the most violent gale, and again assume its upright form as soon as the wind has passed. A violent storm which occurred in Scotland, in 1803, literally ploughed avenues in forests of half-grown Pines, while a few Larches that were mixed with them were not injured.

One property possessed by the wood of the Larch, renders it, in a certain manner, superior to that of any other timber; this consists in its timber being equally good throughout its thickness, possessing no *sap-wood*. In this it is superior even to the oak, which, when timber of the best quality, *heart of oak*, is required, suffers a loss of at least one-third of its substance by the removal of the *sap-wood*. Every branch also of the Larch is equal in quality to the main stem itself.

From its durable nature, the timber of this tree is of great use for many purposes; the picturesque cottages of the Swiss peasantry are formed of its wood, and are remarkable for their durability, and it resists the alternate action of wet and dry weather better than any other. In England, our hop-poles, which are formed of ash and elm, seldom last more than three or four years, but the vine-props of France, formed of Larch, are of so durable a nature, that the proprietors of the vineyards declare, their fathers are unable to state when they were first placed in the ground. Before the employment of canvass, Larch was much used by the older painters; many of Raphael's pictures are painted on boards of Larch. The chief reason that Larch is less employed than it deserves to be, is the difficulty with which it is worked, owing to its clammy and tough nature.

The advantages that would accrue from the extensive cultivation of this tree in the British Isles are, that it will grow in soils and situations where hardly any other tree can thrive. "It grows on almost any soil, if not absolutely arid, or absolutely a swamp, where other trees will grow, and where they will not."

The resin which the Larch yields, in common with all the Pine tribe, is known in commerce as Venice turpentine; to obtain this, the tree is bored on the south side, about three or four feet from the ground, twice in the year, namely, in May and September; a kind of spout, or gutter, is placed in the hole, and the sap received in a vessel placed below; as soon as it ceases to flow, the holes are plugged up. A good tree will yield from seven to eight pounds of resin a year, for forty or fifty years in succession. A kind of manna is also collected from its leaves in the Spring, called Briançon manna.

A curious anecdote is told of the introduction of this tree into Scotland. The plants arrived at Dunkeld, the seat of the Duke of Athol, to whom they had been presented, along with orange-trees and other Italian exotics, and they were all placed in the hot-house together; the temperature of the place, of course, speedily killed the Larches, and their remains were thrown on the dung-heap; here, their roots being covered by the refuse of the garden, some slight remains of life remaining still in them, they began to vegetate, and being in a more genial atmosphere, the branches shot forth their buds, and, by degrees, the plants became vigorous. Since then, large tracts of land have been planted in Scotland with this tree, and it has been much used in ship-building. The first British ship of war built with this wood was a frigate, in 1819–20; it was laid down at Woolwich, and the timber was supplied by the extensive plantations of the Duke of Athol.

The general height of a well-grown Larch is from 90 to 100 feet, although mention is made of specimens produced on the ridges of the Alps, which have exceeded 120 feet. Its mode of propagation is by means of seed, like the rest of the Pine tribe.

LEAVES, BLOSSOM, AND SEED-POD OF THE LARCH.

LONDON
JOHN WILLIAM PARKER, WEST STRAND.
PUBLISHED IN WEEKLY NUMBERS, PRICE ONE PENNY, AND IN MONTHLY PARTS PRICE SIXPENCE, AND
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THE
Saturday Magazine.

No. 293. JANUARY 28TH, 1837 { PRICE ONE PENNY.

THE ALLIGATOR.

BULLOCK ATTACKED BY AN ALLIGATOR.

THERE is, perhaps, no country in which the Alligator more generally abounds, than in India. It is found in most of the rivers, in the large tanks, and frequently, during the monsoons, in small pools of water scarcely larger than the common pond of an English farm-yard. In the larger tanks these creatures are commonly fed by the Hindoos, who venerate, though they do not, like the ancient Egyptians, worship them. They become so tame when daily supplied with food by the superstitious Brahmins of the temples near which they take up their undisturbed abode, that any person may fearlessly bathe in the tanks, without the slightest chance of molestation, these usually voracious reptiles being so pampered, as to have no further relish for human flesh. I have often seen them come to the sides of the reservoirs, and take their food with perfect gentleness from the hands of those who daily feed them; and yet, in the rivers, where they are obliged to have recourse to more contingent resources for those supplies which their natural voraciousness demands, they occasionally commit dreadful ravages, sometimes seizing upon the bathers, or boatmen, as they are pushing their boats over the shallows, and still more frequently destroying sheep, and even oxen and horses, as they are crossing the fords. They lie in wait among the sedges, upon the low banks of a deep stream, and as the ox approaches, they strike his legs with their tail, and having thus suddenly cast him to the ground, they seize him by the neck with their fatally-armed jaws, drag him into the river, and having allowed the carcass to become putrid, devour it with disgusting avidity.

An Alligator will watch a body thus obtained for several days together, until in a state of sufficient delicacy and tenderness from decomposition, to satisfy the relish of this epicurean monster. No other Alligator dares approach during this anxious vigil; or should a stranger venture near the rotting luxury, the watcher attacks him with the most desperate determination, and generally manages to protect his prize; at all events, he never relinquishes it till after a fierce and lengthened struggle.

In the Ganges, these creatures may be almost daily seen watching the numerous carcasses which constantly float down that contaminated river, awaiting the moment when they shall have attained a state of luxurious maturity. Sometimes a solitary vulture appears sailing down the current, perched upon a human body, which the mistaken attachment of superstitious friends had committed to the stream to send on its road to paradise, tearing the scarcely cold flesh from the bones, until chased from its horrid repast by the more dominant and not less voracious Alligator.

It is a very common thing for the native princes of India, living in the neighbourhood of large rivers, where Alligators abound, to have them caught for the purpose of entertaining their court and guests, by making them fight, or causing them to be attacked by other animals. These fights, as they are called, are so cruel and inhuman, that we will not offend our

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Christian readers by attempting to describe them. The court of Lucknow used to be very celebrated for such horrid exhibitions, but I believe they are now much less frequently seen in that city.

The natural history of the Alligator is sufficiently interesting. It is the most formidable of the amphibious tribes, and is found in most of the large rivers of Asia, Africa, and America. It was originally called by the American-Spaniards *a lagato*, which was corrupted by our countrymen to alligato, or alligator. When full-grown, these animals frequently reach the prodigious length of twenty-five or twenty-six feet, They resemble the lizard in almost all particulars except in their fierce and implacable character.

The head of the Alligator is long and flat, and its prodigious mouth armed with two rows of teeth, so extremely strong and sharp as to make a considerable impression upon steel. This terror of the rivers in which it takes up its abode, has been said to have a peculiar conformation of the jaws, being incapable of moving the upper mandible; but this is quite a mistake, the animal having precisely the same motion of the jaws as other quadrupeds. There is, however, a peculiarity in the structure of the processes which direct the action of the tongue; this member being so strongly attached to the sides of the lower jaw by a very tough membrane, that it cannot be projected beyond the lips. The eyes are placed obliquely in the head, and the eyelids being covered with wrinkles, beneath which the fiery orbs glow with intense brightness, impart an aspect of extreme ferocity to the fierce creature. The body is covered with hard, thick scales, which extend from the head to the extremity of the tail, and are impervious to a musket-ball. There are two erected ridges, protected in the same manner, running the whole length, only commencing at the junction of the hind-legs, which, as well as the fore-legs, are furnished with strong, sharp, curved claws.

The colour of the Alligator is a dark-brown upon the back, and a yellowish-white upon the belly. These creatures will remain a long time without sustenance. It is said, that after a protracted fast they swallow stones and other indigestible substances, in order, by producing distention of the stomach, to alleviate the extreme craving consequent upon long abstinence. They are reported to live a great length of time without any aliment. Brown, in his *History of Jamaica*, asserts that he has frequently seen them put into ponds, their jaws being previously fastened together with wire, in which state they have lived several months without being permitted to take any food. This animal is much tormented by a sort of leech that adheres to the fauces and tongue, from which it is relieved by a small bird, which enters the monster's mouth, and devours the intruder.

The female deposits her eggs in the sand, where they are hatched by the sun. She lays about a hundred in a year; these are not larger than the egg of a goose, which they much resemble. Few of them come to maturity, being destroyed in vast numbers by the ichneumon and vulture. The moment the young are hatched they crawl into the water, and provide their own sustenance, never receiving any assistance from the mother. They are about five inches long when they break from the shell, and grow with extreme rapidity. J. H. C.

MEN should consider, that the more they enjoy, they are accountable for so much the more; and as they are capable of doing the more good, so by neglecting these opportunities, they expose themselves to the greater punishments. —CONYBEARE.

ON WINTER.

A "driving snow-storm" rages. The weather, too, is intensely cold. It is Winter, indeed, "reigning tremendous o'er the conquered year," and reminding the fortunate that even in a prosperous city, there are indigence, destitution, even houseless misery, to be found and relieved. The true spirit of benevolence is most active, when its exertions can be most efficacious. In looking forth we may shudder when we reflect how many must suffer all the fury and bleakness of the day,—how many experience severe privation and loss, from inability to face its terrors, —and what the dangers and the trials of those who approach or navigate our coasts, on a "tempest-troubled deep," with icy cordage and a hurricane of sleet. The bark now struggles against all the elements,—against winds, waves, snows, and rocks. Miss Landon has been particularly happy in describing some of the fearful traits of a destructive gale :—

It pauses to gather its fearful breath,
And lifts up its voice like the angel of death;
And the billows leap up when the summons they hear,
And the ship flies away as if winged with fear.
And the uncouth creatures that dwell in the deep,
Start up at the sound from their floating sleep,
And career through the water, like clouds through the night,
To share in the tumult, their joy and delight;
And when the moon rises, the ship is no more,
Its joys and its sorrows are vanished and o'er,
And the fierce storm that slew it has faded away,
Like the dark dream that flies from the light of the day.

Such an aspect of the skies and earth as we witness, invites the domestic circle, moreover, to double cordiality of intercourse and joint thankfulness to Providence for comparative security and comfort. Another contemporary poet has beautifully said :—

Though boundless snows the withered heath deform,
And the dim sun scarce wanders through the storm;
Yet shall the smile of social love repay
With mental light the melancholy day.

It is a season to think of promoting not merely the general welfare of those around us, but their particular and detailed happiness; to resolve fondly and fixedly to let all harsh sentiments, unkind purposes, and angry phrases die within us, as the murmurs do in the sea-shells. Feeling; looks; speech; motion; are all to be strictly guarded, lest they express that which tends to produce an atmosphere near the very fire-side almost as chilling and withering as the air without, and to leave impressions or traces which can never be effaced like those of external nature.

When death strikes at home—when a relative or companion goes to the tomb,—nothing consoles the survivor so much, as the recollection of a constant kindliness of deed, and word, and manner,—an invariable restraint of temper and self-love, towards the deceased. Self-reproach may be the worst and most durable source of regret and sorrow, even when much affection has been entertained and duty generally performed. Washington Irving has illustrated this truth,—too often and widely neglected,—with exquisite pathos in one of his tales. He tells that memory will be more fresh and importunate, when the near and tender ties of life have been broken, in recalling to the mourner the merits which may not have been duly and steadily appreciated,—the perverseness, the injustice, the severity shown,—the sallies of anger or ill-humour,—than the main regard, and the benevolent intentions cherished, or the good offices done at intervals of happy sunshine, or in the absence of every provocative to umbrage or spleen.

WINTER AND CHARITY.—Public calls are made upon the charity of those who can afford alms to our own suffering poor; to the necessitous who live

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within our community, who "bow before the same altars," minister to our many wants, and are immediately thrown on our bounty by Divine Providence. This is no appeal to vanity—no imposition on credulity—but a claim upon an unquestionable duty, an incitement to unequivocal beneficence—a channel opened to our hearts for the tears of the destitute widow, the cries of the famishing orphan, the groans of honest industry, wholly abortive in its attempts, or piteously deficient in its gains. Assistance is invoked against the unusual inclemency of the season, for which no humble labourer could be fully prepared; in behalf of wretchedness that does not stalk abroad or raise an importunate lament, but shrinks forlorn in the hovel or the chamber, from the public glance; cowers in sad silence over the last embers on the hearth; and hails succour, when it comes, with the blush of decent pride, and the gratitude of diffident merit.

There is much of this species of truly compassionable and severe distress, which may be discovered without extraordinary pains, and assuaged without heavy disbursements; and the mitigation of which will open—as the poet says of charity in general—"a little heaven" in the breast of each reliever and each sufferer relieved. We recognise a special efficiency, and a special dignity, in the concert of many sympathetic hearts, and open hands, pouring as it were a tide of comparative happiness within their own proximate and proper sphere of action. Its generous enthusiasm is not vainly romantic; its operation is palpably sure; it is an exercise of the social obligations and affections which is followed by an immediate harvest, which, while it refines and strengthens the municipal or local spirit, contributes to the good of the whole country or world, upon the principle that if each community or each individual were to perform duly the task allotted by Providence to each, the aggregate of prosperity or blessings, the sum of success, would be the greater, or at the maximum. The application of charity has been well compared to the division of labour in a large and complicated system.

The severity of the season is the visitation of God; and it seems to be a part of the ordination of the human world, as he has constituted things in his wisdom and goodness, that those whom he has blessed with abundant means should heal in part the evils which he allows to fall on others;—should serve as auxiliaries and ministers of his ultimate mercies. He has endowed our race with the principle of benevolence, so that the gratification of it reacts most pleasurably, and its exercise seems indispensable for the excellence and felicity of our nature. One great purpose of society is to furnish opportunities of mutual aid and support: to improve those opportunities is to strengthen all the social bonds, to employ and heighten a salutary, genial instinct, to conform to the original temperament of the moral frame.

We do not dwell alone upon the clear and positive injunctions of revealed religion, and the lessons of Divine example in this respect;—charity is a tenet likewise of natural theology, as it is of the more general philosophy of man;—the movements and relations of liberal and grateful sympathy, are primary properties, which refine and expand with the progress of reason and civilization. The philosophical poet, Akenside, in the second book of the *Pleasures of the Imagination*, has splendidly discussed the pain and pleasure incident to compassion.

Malevolence too often mars the bounties of Heaven and the intentions of human wisdom: Divine dispensations of good are frustrated or abridged by man's folly and passion. This would seem to be the history of all human affairs. Let us think, now, only of alleviating the effects of a sad vicissitude—of tempering for ourselves what may be relatively dark and precarious. The truly Christian and pious can have no difficulty in this work. With regard to themselves, their content and security are uniform:

> Religion! Providence! an after-state!
> Here is firm footing! here is solid rock!
> This can support us! all is sea besides,
> Sinks under us, bestorms, and then devours.
> His hand the good man fastens on the skies,
> And bids earth roll, nor feels her idle whirl.

Young, one of the great moral instructors among the poets, has given no truer lesson than this; none which the possessors of rank, power, or wealth, have had more occasion to feel. He has expressed also, the peculiar inspirations of this season—or what should be such—charitable sympathy—mutual good-will—preference of mild and generous emotions to the gratification of any of the impulses of selfish cupidity and fear. The Gospel breathes or enjoins that humanity be made the minister of merciful Providence; that wealth in the gross, and hoarded, is disgrace and death—but when diffused, honour and life—when well-dispersed, "incense to the skies." To be Christians, the creditor must now be doubly liberal with his debtor; the friend, more free in his aid; the charitable, more ready and expansive in the distribution of their means. The poor are suddenly multiplied, and the pinches of indigence aggravated;—numbers of worthy persons are reduced to severe and unexpected straits;—every increase of these evils threatens all others with some serious disadvantage or loss. General forbearance, then, on the part of the more prosperous; some voluntary privations or sacrifices; a concert of public-spirited and philanthropic efforts; the renunciation of mere prejudices and party-ties;—these are the true expedients of relief and the duties of this critical juncture. Let self-love be pushed or yielded to social—a considerate mood prevail wherever and in whatever form claims shall be made. When pleas for indulgence or succour are real—when they have been rendered necessary by abrupt embarrassment and misfortune—when lenity or generosity may avert ulterior loss, or final ruin—no good and wise man will hesitate to *comply with the times*.

In regard to individual and family comfort, there is an infallible rule:—resolutely to smooth the brow; to reject sombre ideas and anticipations; to allow all amusement and indulgence that is compatible with duty and prudence. It is well, not merely to kindle the fire in the hearth, and defeat the inclemencies and glooms of the external sky, but to make the heart and countenance glow and brighten until the cast of thought loses all paleness and wrinkle. A certain degree of relaxation in a particular season and for a given time, may be salutary for the whole moral being.—WALSH.

VIRTUE is the queen of labourers: opinion the mistress of fools: vanity the pride of nature; and contention the overthrow of families.

Virtue is not obtained in seeking strange countries, but mending old errors.

Pythagoras compares virtue to the letter Y, which is small at the foot, and broad at the head; meaning, that to attain virtue is very painful, but its possession very pleasant.

Real virtue may always continue unarmed: it is its own sufficient guard; for if it *be real*, it hath such an indomitable awe and reverence in its appearance, as will always effectually daunt the dastard front of vice.—?.

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MUSICAL INSTRUMENTS.

No. II.

WIND INSTRUMENTS.

MANKIND, by the invention of the trumpet, having discovered the property possessed by a hollow tube of producing a certain sound; would naturally soon discover, that the note varied according to the length and capacity of that tube. We may suppose that some idea of combining these various notes so as to produce a tune, would soon arise; but, let the number of notes employed be many or few, one performer would be required to produce each distinct sound, which would be a manifest waste of time. A combination of a series of tubes, in such a manner as to enable one performer to use them, if not at the same moment, at least in rapid succession, would next occur, and this most likely caused the invention of the Pan, or Pandean pipes; these were generally, as they are at present, formed of reeds, but the specimen of an ancient Roman instrument of this description, fig. 1, appears to have been made of oblong square tubes.

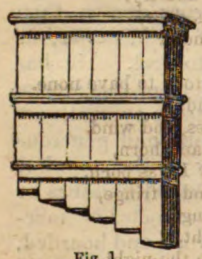
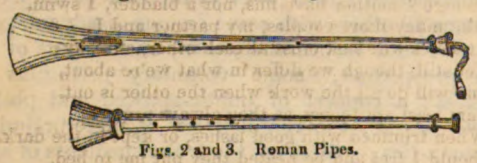


Fig. 1. Ancient Pan Pipes.

But a much greater improvement soon took place; it was discovered that one tube would answer the purpose of many, by boring holes in the course of its length, as in the flageolet, and producing various musical notes by stopping with the fingers certain of these holes. Figs. 2 and 3 are specimens of simple



Figs. 2 and 3. Roman Pipes.

Roman pipes of this description. Fig. 4 represents a double pipe of the same nation, thus increasing the

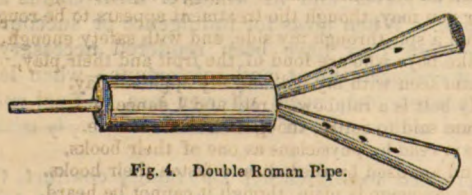


Fig. 4. Double Roman Pipe.

power of the performer. In some ancient sculptures we find representations of pipes of this description, in which a number of pipes are employed, but in most instances these would require a greater expenditure of breath than would be at the command of the musician. Fig. 5 is a modern Russian pipe.

Fig. 5. Modern Russian Pipe.

This necessity would lead to the invention of the bagpipes. Fig. 6 is one of the earliest forms of this instrument; the skin of an animal, sewn up so as to contain the air, appears to have been employed. The next engraving, fig. 7, represents an instrument of this description, in which the bagpipes and the pan-pipes are combined. In this case it is not quite clear in what manner the instrument was used; perhaps the stream of air, forced through the whole of the pipes at once, produced a sound somewhat like a

Fig. 6. Ancient Bagpipe.

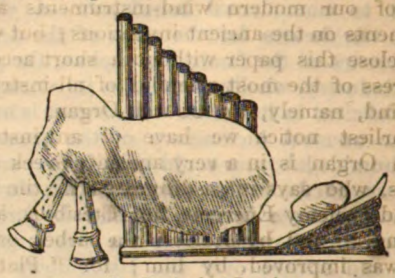
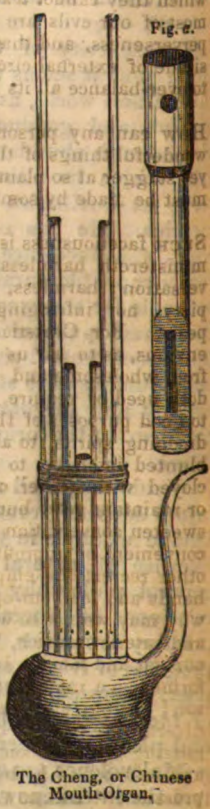


Fig. 7. Ancient Bagpipes.

musical chord, and answered the same purpose as the drone in the modern bagpipes, thus leaving the two hands at liberty to regulate the notes produced by the short pipes. The engraving is after a medal of the time of Nero.

The Chinese, who are extremely minute and fanciful in all their systems, have divided all sounds into eight *species*, each of which, they say, can be produced from a certain substance only, from which substance the kind of sound takes its name,—as the sound of *metal*, produced by a bell; of *stone*, from pieces of sonorous rock, struck with a stick; of *silk*, from strings of that material stretched over a sounding-board, and played on with the fingers like the chords of a lute: of *bamboo*, used in the same manner as in our pan-pipes; of a *calabash*, produced by the singular instrument figured below; of *baked earthenware*, struck like the stone; of the *skin of animals*, as in the drum; and of *wood*; a curious instrument to represent this sound is in the form of a great wooden chest, with a crouching tiger on the top; on the back of the tiger are what are intended for twenty-five hairs, but more like the teeth of a saw; these hooks are struck with a small stick to produce the required sound.

The *Cheng*, the instrument that produces the sound of the calabash, displays considerable ingenuity. Formerly a calabash, a species of gourd, was employed to make the cheng; it was dried, and the upper part being cut off, its place was supplied by a flat piece of wood, bored with as many holes as it was intended there should be tubes, the number of these varying, being 24, 19, or 13. The tubes are formed of bamboo, and close to the insertion of each into the calabash there is a small hole. Fig. *a*, by the side of the instrument, showing the lower part of one of the tubes, explains this better. That portion which is inserted into the calabash is cut smaller, having a shoulder to prevent its entering too far; the lower orifice is plugged up with wood, and a small hole is bored, so as to enter the hollow of the cane at its lower end, above the shoulder; below this, and near the lowest extremity, a tongue of thin metal or hard wood is fixed, with the upper end free. The



The Cheng, or Chinese Mouth-Organ.

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mouth-piece of the cheng is in the form of a goose's neck, and arises from the body of the calabash; through this the breath is forced, and the sounds are produced by stopping with the fingers any of the small holes at the foot of each tube.

Most of our modern wind-instruments are but improvements on the ancient inventions; but we cannot well close this paper without a short account of the progress of the most splendid of all instruments of this kind, namely, the Church Organ.

The earliest notice we have of an instrument called an Organ is in a very ancient Greek author, Athenæus, who says it was invented in the time of the second Ptolemy Euergetes, by Ctesibius, a native of Alexandria, and by profession a barber, or rather that it was improved by him; for "Plato gave the first idea, by inventing a water-clock, *clepsydra*, which played upon flutes the hours of the night, at a time when they could not be seen on the index."

In the collection of antiquities bequeathed by Christina, Queen of Sweden, to the Vatican, there is a large and beautiful medallion of Valentinian, on the reverse of which is represented an Hydraulic Organ, with two men, one on the right and one on the left, who seem to pump the water which plays it, and to listen to its sounds. It has only eight pipes, placed on a round pedestal, and as no keys or performers are visible, it is probable it was played on by mechanism.

The first Organ that was seen in Europe is believed to have been sent to France from Constantinople in 757, as a present from the Emperor to King Pepin. It is uncertain at what date Organs were first used in churches, but it seems certain, that they were common in Europe in the tenth century.

As daily experience makes it evident, that misfortunes are unavoidably incident to human life, that calamity will neither be repelled by fortitude, nor escaped by flight; neither awed by greatness, nor eluded by obscurity; philosophers have endeavoured to reconcile us to that condition which they cannot teach us to merit, by persuading us that most of our evils are made afflictive only by ignorance or perverseness, and that nature has annexed to every vicissitude of external circumstances some advantage sufficient to over-balance all its inconveniences.—*Rambler.*

How can any person have faith to believe that all the wonderful things of this world were made by chance,—and yet stagger at so plain, and easy a proposition, as that they must be made by some intelligent being!—GILPIN.

SUCH facetiousness is not unreasonable or unlawful, which ministereth harmless divertisement and delight to conversation; harmless, I say, that is, not intrenching upon piety, nor infringing charity or justice, nor disturbing peace. For Christianity is not so tetrical, so harsh, so envious, as to bar us continually from innocent, much less from wholesome and useful pleasure, such as human life doth need or require. And if jocular discourse may serve to good purposes of this kind; if it may be apt to raise our drooping spirits, to allay our irksome cares, to whet our blunted industry, to recreate our minds, being tired and cloyed with graver occupations; if it may breed alacrity, or maintain good humour among us; if it may conduce to sweeten conversation and endear society, then it is not inconvenient or unprofitable. If for these ends we may use other recreations, employing on them our ears and eyes, our hands and feet, our other instruments of sense and motion, why may we not so well accommodate our organs of speech and interior sense? Why should those games which excite our wit and fancies be less reasonable, since they are performed in a manly way, and have in them a smack of reason; seeing, also, they may be so managed as not only to divert and please, but to improve and profit the mind, rousing and quickening it, yea, sometimes enlightening and instructing it, by good sense, conveyed in jocular expression.—BARROW.

A CHARADE.

PRONOUNCED as one letter, and written with three,
Two letters there are, and two only in me.
I am double, am single, am black, blue, and gray,
I am read from both ends, and the same either way.
I am restless and wandering, steady and fixed,
And you know not one hour what I may be the next.
I melt and I kindle, beseech and defy,
I am watery and moist, I am fiery and dry.
I am scornful and scowling, compassionate, meek,
I am light, I am dark, I am strong, I am weak.
I am sluggish and dead, I am lively and bright,
I am sharp, I am flat, I am left, I am right.
I am piercing and clear, I am heavy and dull,
Expressive and languid, contracted and full.
I am careless and vacant, I search, and I pry,
And judge, and decide, and examine, and try.
I'm a globe, and a mirror, a window, a door,
An index, an organ, and fifty things more.
I belong to all animals under the sun,
And to those which were long understood to have none.
By some I am said to exist in the mind,
And am found in potatoes, and needles, and wind.
Three jackets I own, of glass, water, and horn,
And I wore them all three on the day I was born.
I am covered quite snug, have a lid and a fringe,
Yet I move every way on invisible hinge.
A pupil I have, a most whimsical wight,
Who is little by day, and grows big in the night,
Whom I cherish with care as a part of myself,
For in truth I depend on this delicate elf,
Who collects all my food, and with wonderful knack,
Throws it into a net which I keep at my back;
And, though heels over head it arrives, in a trice
It is sent up to table all proper and nice.
I am spoken of sometimes as if I were glass,
But then it is false, and the trick will not pass.
A blow makes me run though I have not a limb;
Though I neither have fins, nor a bladder, I swim.
Like many more couples, my partner and I,
At times will look cross at each other, and shy;
Yet still, though we differ in what we're about,
One will do all the work when the other is out.
I am least apt to cry, as they always remark,
When trimmed with good lashes, or kept in the dark.
Should I fret and be heated they put me to bed,
And leave me to cool upon water and bread.
But if hardened I grow they make use of the knife,
Lest an obstinate humour endanger my life.
Or you may, though the treatment appears to be rough,
Run a spit through my side, and with safety enough.
Like boys who are fond of the fruit and their play,
I am seen with my ball and my apple all day.
My belt is a rainbow, I reel and I dance;
I am said to retire, though I never advance.
I am read by physicians as one of their books,
And am used by the ladies to fasten their hooks.
My language is plain, though it cannot be heard,
And I speak without ever pronouncing a word.
Some call me a diamond; some say I am jet;
Others talk of my water, or how I am set.
I'm a borough in England, in Scotland a stream,
And an isle of the sea in the Irishman's dream.
The earth without me would no loveliness wear,
And sun, moon, and stars, at my wish disappear;
Yet so frail is my tenure, so brittle my joy,
That a speck gives me pain, and a drop can destroy.

IF you should happen to meet with an accident at table, endeavour to preserve your composure, and do not add to the discomfort you have created, by making an unnecessary fuss about it. The easier such things are passed over, the better. I remember hearing it told of a very accomplished gentleman, that when carving a tough goose, he had the misfortune to send it entirely out of the dish, and into the lap of the lady next to him; on which he very coolly looked her full in the face, and with admirable gravity and calmness, said, "Ma'am, I will thank you for that goose." In a case like this, a person must necessarily suffer so much, and be such an object of compassion to the company, that the kindest thing he could do, was to appear as unmoved as possible. This manner of bearing such a mortifying accident gained him more credit, than he lost by his awkward carving.—*The Young Lady's Friend*

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THE POPULAR SUPERSTITIONS, LEGENDS, AND FICTIONS, OF THE MIDDLE AGES.

II.

MYTHOLOGY OF THE NURSERY.

DELUSIONS OF THE NURSERY.—PERNICIOUS CONSEQUENCES OF EXCITING FEAR.—TERROR THE CAUSE OF DISTURBED SLEEP, CONVULSIONS, AND DREAMS.—STORIES WHICH HAVE THEIR ORIGIN IN POPULAR FICTIONS.

OUR mothers' maids, says old Reginald Scott, have so frayed us with bul-beggars, spirits, witches, urchins, elves, hags, fairies, satyrs, Pans, Fauns, sirens, Kit with the canstick, tritons, centaurs, dwarfs, giants, imps, calcars, conjurors, nymphs, changelings, *incubus*, Robin Goodfellows, the spoon, the mare, the man in the oak, the helwain, the fire-drake, the Puckle, Tom Thumb, hobgoblin, Tom Tumbler, Boneless, and other such things, that we are afraid of our own shadows: insomuch that some never fear the devil but in a dark night; and then a polled sheep is a perilous beast, and many times is taken for our father's soul, especially in a churchyard, where a right hardy man heretofore scant durst pass by night, but his hair would stand upright.

It was a very common practice in former times, not entirely exploded in the present enlightened age, to induce children to be *good* and *obedient*, by operating upon their fears; for in children, from their natural helplessness, fear is the strongest passion. Parents worked upon this by the terrors of discipline, and presented the rod as the argument in favour of implicit submission. But nurses, and the "good woman," as they were called, went another way to work. They were not allowed to chastise children, and therefore they operated upon the fears of the little one by other subjects of a no-less terrific kind. There was either some frightful old man, as "old Poby," or decrepit old woman, "Mother Bunch," for instance, to whom the children would be given, if they did not cease their crying, and do as they were bidden.

About bed-time, in particular, when it is well known children are generally refractory, stories were told of spirits, ghosts, hobgoblins, and other terrific non-entities, by means of which, although the little ones would not go to bed without being accompanied by their nurses, they went very quietly with them. This system continued for many years in this country, and still exists to a certain extent; but it was found by experience to be inconsistent with right reason, and productive of bad consequences. It was soon discovered that to frighten was not to convince, and that a continuation of such alarms and fears had an improper and relaxing effect upon the mind of the child. Even grown persons have asserted that they have never so far overcome the effects of this erroneous discipline, as to be able to go much into dark rooms, or sleep without a light. Good sense at length interposed; and the whole agency of ghosts and goblins was pretty generally discharged; and in most families of the present day, servants are expressly interdicted from telling old legendary stories about spirits, spectres, witches, and fairies, in the presence of the children.

It would prove a useful task to enumerate the various sorts of deception which it is the custom of ordinary education successively to impose upon its subjects. The practice of such means is one of those vices in teaching "the young idea how to shoot," that is most early introduced into the treatment of youth. If the nurse find a difficulty in persuading her charge to go to sleep, she will pretend to go to sleep along with it. If the parent wish his youngest son to go to bed before his brothers, he will order the elder ones up stairs, with permission to return as soon as they can do it unobserved. If the mother is going out for a walk, or to pay a visit, she will order the child, upon some pretended occasion, to a distant part of the house, till she has made her escape.

It is a deception too gross (says a modern author, whose philosophical and sentimental writings have been much admired,) to be insisted on, to threaten children with pretended punishments,—that you will cut off their ears; that you will put them into the well; that you will give them to the "old man;" that there is somebody coming down the chimney to take them away.

Terror, or the dread of an evil surprising us before we are able to avert it, is of all passions the most destructive, and the most difficult to be avoided, because its operation is unforeseen and instantaneous. To shun, therefore, all occasions that may produce it, either in young or old, is perhaps the only remedy. Persons who are feeble, and possessed of much sensibility, are most subject to terror, and likewise most affected by it. Its effects are,—a sudden and violent contraction of almost every muscle that serves to perform the voluntary motions. It may further occasion disease of the heart, inflammation of the external parts of the body, spasms and swoons; at the same time, it may arrest salutary evacuations, particularly perspiration, and the like; to the great detriment of health, and danger of life. Palpitation of the heart, trembling of the limbs, and in a more violent degree, convulsions and epileptic fits, or a general catalepsy, and sudden death, are the subsequent effects of terror, which quickly compels the blood to retreat from the skin to the internal parts; hence it forcibly checks the circulation of the fluids. Terror has been known suddenly to turn the hair gray; and this inattentive and very reprehensible mode of educating children, often lays the foundation of some infirmity, which it is difficult, if at all, to eradicate in after-years. It is the cause of frightful dreams, and convulsions in children, in whom the nervous system is very easily affected, and consequently their predisposition greater to these attacks, from the considerable capacity of their brain with respect to the rest of the body, in the earlier periods of life.

Of a different character from the preceding are those little stories of the nursery with which the rising generation in their infant years are amused. Since our boyish days, however, the literature of the nursery has sustained a mighty alteration. Even nurse herself has become strongly fastidious in her taste, and the books which please her are far different from those over which she used to pore when, with "spectacles on nose," she taught our infant lips to lisp the first letters of the alphabet. Scarcely any of the chap-books which were sold to the country-people at fairs and markets, have been able to maintain their ancient popularity; and we have almost witnessed the extinction of this branch of our national literature.

Those old stories, however, which have their origin in popular fictions transmitted to us from the earliest times have a very different tendency to that of the trashy modern novels, by which they have, in some respects, been superseded. On this subject a distinguished authority observes that

Physiologists investigate the laws of animated life in animalculæ swimming in the rain-drop; the botanist ascends from mosses and lichens to the oak and palm; the man of letters should not disdain the chap-book, or the nursery story. Humble as these efforts of the human intellect may appear, they show its secret workings, its mode and progress, and human nature must be studied in all its productions;

and, in the words of Sir Walter Scott, on this subject:

A work of great interest might be compiled upon the

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origin of popular fiction and the transmission of similar tales from age to age and from country to country. The mythology of one period would then appear to pass into the romance of the next century, and that into the nursery-tale of subsequent ages.

By this means would fiction resolve itself into its primitive elements, as by the slow and unceasing action of the rain and wind the solid granite is crumbled into sand. The creations embodied by the vivid imagination of man in the childhood of his race, incorporate themselves in his barbarous mythology; sanctity is given to his day-dreams by the altar of the idol; and they acquire a deceitful force from the genius of the bard. Blended with the mortal hero, the aspect of the god gleams through the vizor of the helmet, or adds a dignity to the regal crown; while poetry borrows its ornaments from the lessons of the priest. The ancient god of strength of the Teutons, throned in his starry chariot, the Northern Wain, invested the emperor of the Franks and the paladins who surrounded him with superhuman might; and the same constellation darting down its rays upon the head of the long-lost Arthur, has given to the monarch of the Britons the veneration which once belonged to the son of "Uthry Bendragon," "Thunder, the supreme leader," and "Eygyr, the generating power." But time rolls on: the power of these rude mysteries dies away; the flocks are led to graze within the rocky circle of the giants; even the bones of the warriors moulder into dust; the lay is no longer heard; and the fable, reduced again to its orignal simplicity and nudity, becomes the fitting source of pastime to the untutored peasant and the listening child. Hence we may yet trace no small proportion of mystic and romantic lore in the tales which gladden the cottage fire-side, or, century after century, soothe the infant to its slumbers; and when the nursery-maid looks for her sweetheart in the bottom of the tea-cup, she is little aware that she is pretending to exercise the very same art to which the Egyptians pretended thousands of years ago.

We must not now, however, allow ourselves to wander from the realms of popular fiction to the land of popular superstition, till we arrive at its proper place, although there is so much difficulty in ascertaining their exact boundaries, that forgiveness might readily be obtained for the digression. The elves which dance on the wold must be considered as subject to the same laws as the fairies who bless the young prince's christening-cup; and the giant who fills up the portal of the castle, or who wields his club upon the roof of the tower, does not differ essentially from the tall black man who carries away the naughty boy, and terrifies the little ruddy-cheeked maiden on the maternal bosom. These man-eaters were generally the great captains of the times. "Beware of the Melendo!" was the threat of the Moorish mother to her babe. The Moors were driven from Andalusia before fear and hatred had distorted the Castilian knight into a monster; but Attila the Hun, the mighty monarch of the book of heroes, degenerated into a blood-thirsty ogre amongst the inhabitants of Gaul who had smarted under his exterminating sword.

The Welsh have their *Mabonogem*, or "juvenile amusements," of undoubted authenticity and antiquity. Some of them are extant in manuscript, others live only in the traditions of the common people*.

* A translation of the former was prepared for the press by Mr. William Owen, to whom Cymric literature is so greatly indebted, but the manuscript was unfortunately lost before publication. These tales possess extraordinary singularity and interest, and a complete collection of them in the *original language* is still a desideratum in British literature. The Cymry, however, seem to have little feeling for the productions of their ancestors; and the praiseworthy and patriotic exertions of individuals may cause the Welsh nation at large to blush. When a foreigner asks the names of the nobility and gentry of the principality who published the Myvyrian Archæology at their own expense, the answer is, *It was none of them, but Owen Jones, the Thames-street Furrier.*

The popular fiction of the Celts is lively in its poetical imagery. Amongst the nations where the blood of the Teutons yet predominates, popular fiction is equally poetical in its cast. Not so in the happier climes of the south of Europe, where the Italian gives a zest to his popular narratives by buffoonery or ribaldry. A considerable portion of the fairy tales contained in the Italian *Entertainment for the Little Ones*, together with those from the *Nights* of Signor Straparola, exhibit the inhabitants of Peristan as their chief characters, though not always retaining their eastern grace and beauty.

Of the traditionary tales of Spain little can be said, except that we know that all the beasts used to speak in the days of Maucastana who flourished in the reign of King Bamba, when the slashed petticoat of black velvet which the curate borrowed of the innkeeper's wife was yet a new one. The good dog Scipio who spoke in times nearer to our own, has noticed the stories of the "Horse without a Head," and the "Rod of Virtue" with which the old women "were wont to entertain themselves when sitting by the fire-side in the long nights of Winter." In order that the horse without a head may travel to posterity, it may be right to add, that this marvellous monster haunts the Moorish ramparts of the Alhambra, in company with another non-descript beast, yclept the Belludo, on account of his woolly hide: both have a local habitation and a name in the guard-room by the side of the principal portal of the palace, from whence they occasionally sally forth and terrify the sentries.

Teutonic Mythology.

The most important addition to nursery-literature has been effected in Germany, by the diligence of John and William Grimm, two antiquarian brethren of the highest reputation. Under the title of "Children's Tales," they published a collection of German popular stories, singular in its kind, both for extent and variety, and from which we have acquired much information. In this collection may be recognised a host of English, French, and Italian stories of the same genus and species, and extant in printed books; but the greater part of the German popular or nursery stories are stated by the editors to be traditionary, some local, others more widely known. All those, they assert, that are gathered from oral tradition, with the exception of "Puss in Boots," are pure German, and not borrowed from the stranger. In their annotations, Messrs. Grimm have taken considerable pains, and often with great success, to show the relationship between these Children's Tales, and the venerable Sagas of the north, which, in good sooth, were only intended for children of a larger growth.

The real worth of these tales (continues the editors), is, indeed, to be highly estimated, as they give a new and more complete elucidation of our ancient German heroic fictions than could be obtained from any other source. *Thomrosa*, who is set a-sleeping in consequence of the wounds inflicted by her spindle, is *Brynhilda* cast into slumber by the *sleep-thorn* of Odin. The manner in which *Loke* hangs to the giant eagle is better understood after a perusal of the story of the *Golden Goose*, to which the lads and lasses who touch, adhere inseparably. In the stories of the *Wicked Goldsmith*, the *Speaking Bird*, and the *Eating of the Bird's Heart*, we recognise the fable of Sigund. In these popular stories is concealed the pure and primitive

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mythology of the Teutons, which has been considered as lost for ever; and we are convinced that if such researches are continued in the different districts of Germany, the traditions of this nature which are now neglected, will change into treasuries of incredible worth, and assist in affording a new basis for the study of the origin of our ancient poetical fictions.

The lamented Leyden, who took a somewhat similar view of popular narrative, was rather inclined to connect its history with ancient romance, as he overlooked the mythological basis of the system.

In the repetition of an unskilful reciter, the metrical romance or fable seems often to have degenerated into a popular story; and it is a curious fact, that the subjects of some of the popular stories which I have heard repeated in Scotland, do not differ essentially from those of some of the ancient Norman fables, presented to the public in an elegant form by Le Grand. Thus, when I first perused the fables of the Poor Scholar, the Three Thieves, and the Sexton of Cluni, I was surprised to recognise the popular stories which I had often heard repeated in infancy, and which I had often repeated myself, when the song or the tale repeated by turns, amused the tedious evenings of Winter. From this circumstance, I am inclined to think that many of the Scottish popular stories may have been common to the Norman French. Whether these tales be derived immediately from the French, during their long and intimate intercourse with the Scottish nation, or whether both nations borrowed them from the Celtic, may admit of some doubt.

CARTLAND CRAIGS AND BRIDGE.

THE annexed engraving illustrates one of the most useful, as well as one of the most elegant works of art which adorns Scotland. The bridge connecting Cartland Craigs is a bold and splendid structure, thrown across a chasm of tremendous depth, whose rugged bottom is washed by an inconsiderable river, called the Mouse, stealing murmuringly along to swell the waters of the bounteous Clyde, only a mile distant. This bridge, which was designed by the late Thomas Telford, was commenced in 1822, and finished in little more than a year.

It consists of two piers, of the height of 130 feet, forming three arches, with a perfectly level road on the top, spanning a defile of at least 150 feet in width, on the high road from Lanark to England. It is so easy of access, that were it not for the bold and enchanting scenery which surprises and rivets the attention on crossing it, the structure would scarcely be regarded; but here, nature girt with those enrapturing beauties which characterize the scenery of the stormy river whose waterfalls and varied charms have ever been so loudly extolled, presents a lingering remembrance of her neighbouring wildness, in the exhibition of a fearful chasm, the apparent effect of some natural convulsion, whose sides, "precipitously steep," are garnitured with flowers, shrubs, and trees, growing in the wildest luxuriance, and huge projecting rocks, which momentarily threaten to disturb the silence of the scene below. A hazardous path will nevertheless conduct the adventurous traveller to scenes replete with ever-varying beauty, and heightened even by romance; for, apart from the gratifying view which is afforded of the structure which rears its tapering columns above his head, he can enter and explore a cave where the ever-renowned Wallace was once compelled to take shelter, when defeated in an affray at Lanark, in which his wife was killed, and wherein it is said he nurtured the plan, which he subsequently matured, of raising a force to attack a body of English soldiers, then garrisoned in Lanark Castle, under the governance of an English knight, named Haselrigg. The utmost success attended this enterprise, and, perhaps, was the first motive to his openly avowing himself the champion of Scotland.

I. S. K.

CARTLAND CRAIGS AND BRIDGE.

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